

The Pro-Market Legacy of the Pinochet Regime¹

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Abstract

We study whether authoritarian indoctrination through schooling leaves a lasting pro-market legacy. We exploit the September 11, 1973, military coup in Chile as a discrete event: students who entered high school under Pinochet were exposed to a redesigned curriculum that displaced collectivist content and emphasized individual responsibility and market principles. Using a regression discontinuity design and repeated cross-sectional surveys from 2006 to 2017, we compare cohorts that entered secondary school just before and just after the reform. Exposure to the Pinochet curriculum increased the probability of holding strong pro-market attitudes, especially preferences for economic growth over equality, for individual over state responsibility, and for targeted over universal social spending. We then ask whether these effects leave a persistent footprint on politics: aggregated across the electorate, they generate a rightward shift in the median voter during Chile's democratic consolidation. The durability of market institutions, we argue, reflects not only institutional lock-in but also a behavioral legacy transmitted through authoritarian schooling.

Keywords: Individualistic Attitudes, Authoritarian Legacy, Education, Political Attitudes, 1973 Chilean Coup.

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Introduction

Market-oriented reforms introduced during the late twentieth century remain central to the institutional foundations of many economies. In several cases, these policies were implemented during periods of authoritarian rule and later persisted under democratic governments. Despite recurrent political debates over inequality and social protection, efforts to change these institutions and expand the welfare state have repeatedly stalled or failed. This pattern is particularly visible in Latin America, a region characterized by persistently high levels of income inequality and repeated political demands for greater social protection.

Recent events illustrate the durability of these institutional arrangements. In Chile, one of the most unequal countries in the OECD, voters rejected a proposed new constitution in the 2022 referendum. That proposal sought to replace the political and economic model inherited from the authoritarian period with a welfare-oriented framework. A more extreme pattern appears in Argentina. In a context of severe poverty affecting more than one-third of the population, voters elected Javier Milei, a candidate advocating radical market reforms, including large-scale privatization, fiscal austerity, and the dismantling of state intervention in key sectors of the economy. Rather than demanding an expansion of the welfare state in response to economic hardship, a significant portion of the electorate supported a program centered on fiscal cuts.

These cases raise a broader puzzle. Standard political-economy theories predict that high inequality should generate strong electoral demand for redistribution. In the canonical median-voter framework, the size of government is set by majority rule. When income is distributed unequally the decisive voter sits below the mean: the wider the gap between median and mean income, the more the pivotal voter stands to gain from taxing higher incomes and expanding transfers ([Meltzer and Richard, 1981](#)). This logic is foundational to influential accounts of redistribution and regime change, in which the redistributive preferences of a poor majority drive distributive conflict ([Acemoglu and Robinson, 2006](#); [Ansell and Samuels, 2014](#)). By this reasoning, Latin America should be especially fertile ground for redistributive majorities and an expanding welfare state.

Yet welfare expansion in Latin America is truncated. Why does the predicted demand for redistribution fail to materialize? Most existing theories explain the persistence of market-oriented institutions through mechanisms of path dependency that shape the power of relevant actors (e.g., business groups, unions, and parties) as well as institutional constraints (e.g., veto players and constitutional lock-in) (Mahoney, 2001; Huber and Stephens, 2012; Madariaga, 2020). In these accounts, redistribution stalls not because voters do not want it, but because organized interests and institutional rules block its translation into policy: the demand is taken as given, and the explanation lies on the supply side.

In this paper, we develop a complementary, behavioral explanation that locates part of the answer in the preferences of voters themselves. Our central claim is that the median voter is not defined solely by economic position: attitudes toward markets and the state are also shaped by socialization, and authoritarian regimes can deliberately mold them. Where an autocratic regime succeeds in reshaping citizens' economic beliefs, the pivotal voter may be more market-friendly than their material position alone would predict —weakening the electoral demand for redistribution at its source. In other words, we argue that under certain conditions, efforts by authoritarian regimes to reshape economic ideas can have lasting effects on how individuals evaluate markets and state intervention, and therefore explain why voters support the persistence of market-oriented institutions even as inequality remains high.

We test our argument studying the effects of Pinochet's economic authoritarian indoctrination in Chile. During the 1970s and 1980s, most Latin American countries endured military dictatorships, typically supported by the political right. In several cases, these regimes pursued ideological projects that went beyond the restoration of political order. A paradigmatic case is Chile, a country that experienced a 17-year dictatorship under Augusto Pinochet, which radically transformed the economic model and the foundations of societal organization. Pinochet led what he described as an *economic, social, and cultural revolution*, implementing reforms that fundamentally restructured the country's institutions. If under Allende —the previous democratically elected president— unions and grassroots movements flourished, Pinochet sought from the outset to replace what he

viewed as a collectivist and statist mentality that condemned the country to economic stagnation.

We examine whether the Pinochet regime succeeded in shaping the economic attitudes of the Chilean population. In particular, we study the impact of a centralized indoctrination effort conducted by the dictatorship in the immediate aftermath of the September 11, 1973 coup on individuals' pro-market attitudes.

The coup brought about a profound transformation in both educational practices and the content taught in schools. A primary goal of the new *de facto* administration was to purge so-called “Marxist content” from the curriculum, alongside a renewed emphasis on authoritarian and martial values. At the same time, there was an effort to create what officials described as “economic consciousness” —a narrative that assigned responsibility for the economic collapse to the collectivist ideas that flourished under Allende. In the Junta's view, the solution to this crisis lay in teaching students the virtues of austerity and economic responsibility (Perez Navarro and Zurita, 2021). Later on, the regime was famously known for embracing economic ideas associated with the “neoliberal” school of economic thought. Inspired by Friedman and Hayek, this intellectual movement promotes the extension of free-market principles to all societal and public domains, including education, health care, and pensions. Even if the core of these policies produced real change only in the 1980s, the document that provided a roadmap for the regime (“El Ladrillo”) was already in the works in 1972 and broadly disseminated in 1974. In this sense, the ideological nature of the regime, which included views on the economy, was imposed early on.

We treat the coup led by Pinochet as a *discrete event* that radically changed the educational experience of thousands of students. Following the strategy developed by Argote and Voytas (2025) and Voigtländer and Voth (2015), we define as *treated* students who experienced at least one year of high school education under Pinochet, whereas the *control* group consists of students who completed all secondary education just before the coup —that is, under President Allende. To estimate these effects, we pool repeated cross-sectional public opinion surveys conducted between 2006 and 2017. We focus on the effect of authoritarian indoctrination on individuals' *pro-market attitudes*. More specifically, we assess the impact of indoctrination on individuals' preferences regarding

individual versus state responsibility for well-being, economic growth versus equality, targeting versus universalism in social policy, and the role of meritocratic effort in personal advancement.

The results reveal that authoritarian indoctrination leaves a lasting imprint on economic values. Across all indicators, Chileans exposed to the Pinochet curriculum are consistently more likely to hold strong pro-market attitudes decades later. For instance, authoritarian indoctrination increases the probability of prioritizing individual over state responsibility by about 14 percentage points—our most robust estimate, stable across bandwidths and measurement. We also find evidence supporting the indoctrination strengthens preferences for economic growth over equality and for targeted over universal social spending.

These individual-level shifts matter for the puzzle above because of who held them and when. The treated cohorts came of age and entered the electorate precisely as Chile returned to democracy, and they made up a large share of voters throughout the consolidation of the 1990s and 2000s. If indoctrination pushed a sizable bloc of citizens toward more pro-market preferences, it should also have moved the *distribution* of preferences—and with it the pivotal voter—to the right. This is the channel through which a schooling reform can leave an aggregate, electoral footprint: not by persuading every citizen, but by shifting enough of them to relocate the median. We therefore test whether the attitudinal effect aggregates into a displacement of political ideology. It does: treated cohorts place themselves measurably further right on the standard 1–10 left-right scale, and the effect is concentrated among those with a clear ideological identity. A median voter shaped by these cohorts would be more market-friendly than Chile’s high inequality would lead the standard model to predict—helping to explain why redistributive reform has repeatedly stalled even under democratic competition.

We implement a battery of robustness checks that corroborate the validity of the results: (i) a placebo test using students who were not in high school at the time of the coup, for which we find null results; (ii) a second placebo test with a falsified year of the coup, which again yields no effect; and (iii) an assessment of whether life-cycle dynamics could have driven the effect, for which we find no evidence.

How do these effects on pro-market attitudes survive the passage of time? We shed light on plausible mechanisms by testing concurrent effects —that is, effects on contemporaneous outcomes that may help explain why a treatment effect persists. First, we hypothesized that treated cohorts were more prone to engage with private provision than public provision, and that this experience helps explain the persistence of pro-market beliefs. We test this using health insurance, where individuals can choose private or public coverage, and find no effect on actual enrollment in private insurance. Second, we theorized that effects persist because treated cohorts are less likely to experience counterbalancing socialization later in life —for instance, through participation in organizations that bolster redistributive attitudes, such as labor unions. We find suggestive evidence that treated cohorts participate less in unions, though the limited number of survey waves measuring union membership warrants caution. This points to a plausible persistence channel: pro-market attitudes reduce the propensity to join collective-oriented institutions like unions, which in turn further entrenches those attitudes over time.

This paper makes four main contributions. First, it advances the literature on authoritarian socialization and political indoctrination, which is part of a broader tradition on schooling as a tool of state social control ([Paglayan, 2022](#)). The existing literature on ideological indoctrination focuses primarily on the attitudinal legacies of post-communist countries, showing that individuals exposed to communist regimes tend to express stronger support for state economic intervention ([Alesina and Fuchs-Schündeln, 2007](#); [Pop-Eleches and Tucker, 2014, 2017](#)). By contrast, we show that ideological indoctrination can also shift individuals’ preferences toward stronger support for market-oriented economic arrangements, with effects that persist decades after the end of authoritarian rule.

Second, the paper contributes to research on the persistence of market-oriented institutions by highlighting the role of ideological legacies in shaping individuals’ economic preferences. Existing accounts typically emphasize mechanisms such as institutional constraints, policy feedback, and the political influence of organized actors in sustaining these arrangements ([Mahoney, 2001](#); [Acemoglu and Robinson, 2008](#); [Schneider, 2013](#); [Madariaga, 2020](#); [Acemoglu et al., 2021](#)). By

contrast, we show that the durability of market-oriented institutions may also reflect long-lasting changes in citizens' economic beliefs produced by authoritarian ideological projects.

Third, the paper contributes to debates on the long-term legacies of the Pinochet regime in Chile. While previous work has focused primarily on the social and economic consequences of the dictatorship's economic reforms ([Gonzalez et al., 2023](#); [González et al., 2024](#)) and their broader political and distributional implications ([Gonzalez and Prem, 2025](#)), our findings indicate that the regime also left a durable imprint on how citizens evaluate markets, inequality, and the role of the state in the economy.

Finally, our argument situates itself within the median-voter tradition in political economy ([Meltzer and Richard, 1981](#); [Acemoglu and Robinson, 2006](#)), but it identifies a force that pushes against that tradition's central prediction. Where the standard model expects inequality to generate redistributive majorities, we document a mechanism —authoritarian schooling— that moves the pivotal voter in the opposite direction, against redistribution. The implication is that the median voter is not a fixed function of the income distribution; it is also a product of how citizens were socialized to think about the economy. This helps make sense of why Chile, despite ranking among the most unequal democracies, has sustained a market-oriented model and repeatedly declined to dismantle it —most visibly in the 2022 rejection of a welfare-oriented constitution. More broadly, our findings suggest that political economy models seeking to explain the durability of inequality should treat preference formation—not just the income distribution—as an object of study in its own right. Any account of redistributive politics is incomplete without attention to how regimes, democratic or authoritarian, shape economic beliefs through schooling, since these effects can outlast the institutions that produced them.

Indoctrination through Education

Following [Neundorf et al. \(2022\)](#), indoctrination can be defined as a “deliberate, regime-led process of socializing ‘ideal-type’ citizens who support the values, principles, and norms of a

given regime —whether democratic or autocratic— and who thus voluntarily comply with regime demands and remain loyal in times of crisis.” Following this definition, two elements stand out. First, indoctrination can be understood as part of the socialization process, that is, the period during which individuals acquire normative ideas about the world, whether from the family, school, church, or the media ([Neundorf and Pop-Eleches, 2020](#)). In this sense, indoctrination efforts by an autocratic regime may operate through a variety of channels, although schools and the media are the ones typically controlled by them; in this paper, we focus on the former. Second, this definition does not specify the substantive content of the so-called “ideal-type citizen.” While one might expect autocracies to emphasize discipline and traditional values and democracies to stress civic engagement, there may be substantial variation *within* autocratic regimes. For instance, in the Chilean case, *economic values* constituted a central component, as the seeds of economic ideas predated the coup, whereas other autocracies may have placed greater emphasis on cultural values.

Schools are effective vehicles for indoctrination precisely because they are compulsory and wide-reaching ([Paglayan, 2022](#)): unlike media or family influence, curricular content can be centrally controlled, limiting students’ exposure to alternative viewpoints and turning classrooms into managed environments aligned with state objectives. The power of this strategy lies in its ability to cultivate internalized beliefs rather than mere surface-level compliance. When state-approved ideas are consistently reinforced during formative years, they can develop into durable orientations that persist into adulthood.

Empirical research across a range of authoritarian contexts supports the claim that educational indoctrination shapes political attitudes, though the magnitude and direction of these effects vary. In a recent paper conducted in Chile, [Argote and Voytas \(2025\)](#) found a persistent anti-left effect caused by the change in the high-school curriculum, which remains observable in recent survey data. In China, [Cantoni et al. \(2017\)](#) show that large-scale textbook reforms between 2004 and 2010 increased approval of the political system, altered democratic perceptions, and encouraged skepticism toward market-based economic arrangements. Yet these effects appear to be conditional: subsequent work finds that textbook-based indoctrination primarily influenced individuals

whose parents were state employees, highlighting the interaction between schooling and family socialization (Kao, 2021). Evidence from Taiwan points to similar dynamics. Exploiting the termination of authoritarian rule in 1987, Bai and Li (2020) demonstrate that exposure to authoritarian education increased support for the Kuomintang and reduced identification with a Taiwanese national identity. Importantly, later curricular reforms shifted these patterns, suggesting that indoctrination effects are neither immutable nor uniform across time (Chen et al., 2023).

Comparative and historical studies further illustrate the political consequences of authoritarian education. Following the trend described above, we generally find that authoritarian governments affect ideas in their desired direction. A cross-national analysis by Tetteh and Edgell (2024) finds that schooling under authoritarian regimes suppresses democratic mobilization while potentially facilitating pro-autocratic participation. Historical research on Nazi Germany similarly reveals that state-led indoctrination intensified antisemitic attitudes, particularly in areas where such sentiments already existed (Voigtländer and Voth, 2015). In post-communist Europe, individuals educated before regime collapse exhibit lower levels of support for democratic institutions and capitalism, underscoring the long-run imprint of authoritarian schooling (Cheruvu, 2023; Elsayed et al., 2025). At the same time, evidence from democratic transitions suggests that education can also operate in the opposite direction: in Tunisia, brief civic education interventions have been shown to reinforce democratic attitudes and behaviors, indicating that even limited exposure may have meaningful attitudinal effects (E. Finkel et al., 2024).

Economic ideas

Although indoctrination *per se* is the key treatment to be analyzed, we are particularly focused on indoctrination regarding a specific outcome, namely, *pro-market attitudes*. On this matter, much of the literature focuses on the legacies of communism in Eastern Europe. Perhaps the most comprehensive analysis of this case is provided by Tucker and Pop-Eleches in several articles and a book (Pop-Eleches and Tucker, 2011, 2017, 2020). In this body of work, they find that the socialist experience caused long-lasting effects on attitudes toward the economy, in the direction

desired by the regimes. In particular, they show that exposed citizens exhibited greater support for state economic intervention, greater skepticism toward markets, greater support for redistribution, and a higher likelihood of left self-identification years later. They identify two mechanisms. The first is ideological socialization—that is, the transmission of pro-regime ideas through channels over which governments exercise some degree of control, which ultimately shapes individuals' experiences with the regime. The second mechanism is institutional immersion, which refers to formal and informal rules that structure how economic and political systems operate and that may eventually lead to attitudinal change.

A second case that has been considered by this literature is East Germany. In an observational analysis of East German people after the fall of the Berlin Wall, [Alesina and Fuchs-Schündeln \(2007\)](#) found that East Germans hold more pro-state intervention views compared to their western counterparts, and at the same time, a larger belief that success is explained by structural reasons rather than individual merit. Likewise, they found that more exposed cohorts hold stronger beliefs, which are not fully explained by self-interested considerations.

While this literature provides valuable insights into the effects of socialist socialization, it largely conflates the role of *education* with broader regime exposure, leaving open the question of whether schooling itself—rather than lived experience under socialism—shapes economic attitudes. An exception is [Pop-Eleches and Tucker \(2017\)](#), who argue that pre-communist education mitigates the effect of individual exposure to the regime on attitudes, though they find no direct effect of education on economic preferences. More direct evidence comes from [Cantoni et al. \(2017\)](#), who find that China's high school curriculum reform had a significant causal effect on students' economic attitudes: increasing skepticism toward unconstrained free markets and strengthening support for state-guided economic principles. The primary mechanism was ideological framing embedded in textbook content, as the reform explicitly emphasized the virtues of China's "socialist market economy," the central role of state-owned enterprises, and the risks of inequality and instability under purely market-based systems.

Context: The Legacy of Pinochet

On September 11, 1973, Augusto Pinochet led a military coup that overthrew the democratically elected government of Salvador Allende.¹ The immediate aftermath was marked by heavy repression: thousands were detained, tortured, exiled, or killed in the first months following the coup ([Museo de la Memoria y los Derechos Humanos Chile, 2024](#)). Alongside political repression, the regime quickly moved to transform the educational system.

Education reform was not gradual. Schools were closed for the remainder of September and reopened in October under military supervision. From the outset, the regime framed schools as sites of ideological contamination. One of its explicit objectives was the eradication of so-called “Marxist” ideas from the curriculum ([Zurita, 2021](#)). Within two weeks of the coup, the Ministry of Education ordered the removal of textbooks and instructional materials considered politically subversive. For the 1974 school year, the government replaced the existing curriculum with a transitory one, particularly modifying content in Social Sciences, Spanish Language, and Philosophy ([Zurita, 2021](#)).

The reform combined content changes with institutional restructuring. Teachers were dismissed for political reasons, particularly those affiliated with parties that had supported Allende ([Cofré, 1998](#)). Independent teacher unions were dismantled, and the regime created a new state-controlled organization — the “Colegio de Profesores” (a single, government-run national teachers’ association) — to monitor compliance within schools ([Cofré, 1998](#)). Student and parent organizations were prohibited ([Zurita, 2021](#)). These measures reduced institutional autonomy and limited alternative channels of political expression.

Cross-national data corroborate the magnitude of this shift. According to the Varieties of Indoctrination dataset, the 1973 coup corresponds to a sharp increase in indoctrination potential, patriotic indoctrination, and centralization of the education system in Chile ([Neundorff et al., 2023](#)).

¹There is a large literature on the legacy and consequences of the regime’s reforms by scholars across different fields. In the political economy domain, the most comprehensive analyses of the regime’s impact on higher education enrollment, mortality, labor market outcomes, and social mobility can be found in ([Bautista et al., 2023a,b](#); [Gonzalez et al., 2023](#); [González et al., 2024](#)), as well as in a recently published edited volume ([Gonzalez and Prem, 2025](#)).

These indicators suggest that the regime did not merely adjust curricular content but substantially increased the state's capacity to shape the ideological environment of schools.

In 1973, approximately 78% of students were enrolled in public schools, and secondary school coverage was 42.9% ([Zurita, 2021](#)). This implies that the reforms made by the regime affected the lion's share of those who were enrolled in an educational institution. In addition, as the system was highly centralized, curricular changes enacted by the Ministry of Education affected a large share of secondary students. High school therefore became a key site of exposure to the regime's educational project.

The Remaking of the Economic Model and the Ideological Battle

In 1972, a group of economists trained at the University of Chicago (the “Chicago Boys”) began drafting a document —El Ladrillo— that incorporated detailed policy prescriptions to liberalize the economy, including eliminating price controls, reducing tariffs, diminishing the size of the public sector, creating capital markets, and introducing private actors into sectors such as health care and education, among many other measures. By 1974, Pinochet had become convinced of following this route, after several meetings between the Junta and the authors of the document. The consequences were immediate: the first stage in the establishment of the new economic model, spanning 1974 to 1982, followed a strict orthodoxy in the liberal principles embraced by the Chicago Boys, reflected in an extreme liberalization of imports alongside anti-inflationary policy and financial system reforms. The resulting contractionary policies brought high unemployment, declining wages, and numerous business bankruptcies ([Memoria Chilena, Gobierno de Chile, 2025](#)).

The regime did not advance this transformation as a purely technical project; it proclaimed it as a foundational doctrine, and it pressed that doctrine into the schools from the outset. In its *Declaración de Principios del Gobierno de Chile*, issued in March 1974 — the same year the school curriculum was rewritten — the Junta codified an explicitly pro-market vision of society anchored in the principle of subsidiarity, holding that “*el respeto al principio de subsidiariedad supone la aceptación del derecho de propiedad privada y de la libre iniciativa en el campo*

económico” (respect for the principle of subsidiarity presupposes acceptance of the right to private property and of free initiative in the economic sphere), and warning that the State’s monopolization of economic activity “*conduce a una sociedad estatista que termina por negar prácticamente la libertad personal*” (leads to a statist society that ends up practically negating personal freedom) (Junta de Gobierno de Chile, 1974). The same document tied this economic creed directly to schooling, calling for “*una educación que fomente una escala de valores morales y espirituales*” (an education that fosters a scale of moral and spiritual values) congruent with the new order. The regime then pressed this doctrine into the classroom: for the 1974 school year it removed textbooks and rewrote the Social Science, Spanish, and Philosophy programs it deemed politically subversive (Zurita, 2021), and in 1975 it restated the wider project in the *Objetivo Nacional del Gobierno de Chile*, which named the formation of youth and the renewal of national values among the regime’s long-term objectives (Junta de Gobierno de Chile, 1975). The purge of classroom content was granular and ongoing: a Ministry of Education directive of October 1975, for instance, ordered the correction of “Marxist” content in the fifth-grade social-science textbook (Corporación Parque por la Paz Villa Grimaldi, 2026). The pro-market dispositions we measure decades later — individual over state responsibility, growth over equality, and merit over guaranteed provision — thus track closely a value system the regime publicly proclaimed in 1974 and pressed into the classroom in the years that followed.

It would be unrealistic to describe this as a fully fledged “neoliberal” curriculum implemented immediately after the coup. What the historiography documents instead is an early and consistent ideological reorientation, present well before the deeper structural reforms of the 1980s. According to Perez Navarro and Zurita (2021), one of the Junta’s first priorities was to “create consciousness” of the economic crisis it attributed to the Allende administration: a rejection of the prior collectivist orientation of the economy, replaced by a narrative of “reconstruction” grounded in individual responsibility and austerity. In this narrative, a collective-based economy had brought the country to collapse, and it now fell to each individual to answer the call. Consistent with this, Cabaluz Ducasse (2015) finds that by 1974 the regime had already centralized control over

education, dissolving institutions such as the National Education Council and transferring authority to government-appointed officials; even where schools continued operating with pre-existing programs, content was under strict ideological scrutiny, with emphasis on depoliticization and the promotion of nationalist, meritocratic, and individualist values. The curriculum itself reflected this shift, eliminating content associated with a collectivist economy — social rights, structuralism, inequality — and replacing it with an emphasis on discipline and individual responsibility (Perez Navarro and Zurita, 2021).

The regime enforced this ideological shift by removing those most likely to resist it. In the early 1970s, the public education system employed roughly 90,000 teachers; in the aftermath of the coup, thousands were dismissed on political grounds, with affiliation alone to parties aligned with the Allende government sufficient to justify termination (Cofré, 1998). This was reinforced by the systematic dismantling of teacher unions, which the regime viewed as strongholds of Marxist influence. Shortly after the coup, the government suspended contributions to teachers' union retirement funds, undermining their economic security; within a year, unions were formally banned, and membership collapsed from around 100,000 before the coup to only a few hundred shortly thereafter (Cofré, 1998).

Sample and Data

Bicentenario Survey

We utilize data from the Bicentenario Survey covering 2006 to 2017. This survey is a prestigious opinion poll in Chile, conducted by PUC-Chile and Adimark, which has implemented nationally representative in-person surveys since 2006, focusing on political, social, cultural, and economic attitudes. Each wave samples a unique set of respondents. In total, we use nine survey waves: 2006, 2009, 2011, 2012, 2013, 2014, 2015, 2016 and 2017. Each of these surveys contains questions about individuals' attitudes toward markets, measured and worded consistently across years. Although subsequent waves exist, we exclude them because the main outcomes were

measured differently after 2017, which would compromise comparability across waves.

We choose the Bicentenario Survey as our primary data source for two reasons. First, it is the only Chilean survey that repeatedly measures four specific pro-market attitude dimensions that constitute the core of our analysis — individual vs. state responsibility for well-being, growth vs. equality, targeting vs. universalism in social policy, and meritocracy vs. welfare — across a long time horizon. Second, and crucially, these items are direct measures of *economic attitudes*, not proxies for partisan or ideological identification.

We focus on respondents born between 1945 and 1965. This selection allows us to include individuals who completed all their primary and secondary education under the Allende administration (those born between 1945 and 1954), as well as those who experienced at least one year of high school education under Pinochet (those born in 1956 or later).

To refine our sample further, we restrict our main analysis to individuals who completed high school, which aligns with our theory. Our goal is to estimate the impact of the educational reforms implemented in the year following the coup. To achieve this, we must ensure that: (i) subjects were enrolled in secondary school; (ii) the treatment group includes individuals who had at least one year of high school education under Pinochet; and (iii) the control group consists of individuals who completed their entire secondary education under Allende. Therefore, to prevent the inclusion of school dropouts or individuals who transitioned directly into the workforce after middle school, we limit our sample to respondents who attained at least a completed high school degree. This restriction includes both high school graduates who did not pursue further education and those who went on to attend university. Additionally, we exclude individuals who were in their final year of high school in 1973, as their classification into the treatment or control group is ambiguous.

Treatment Assignment

The running variable is the respondent's age at the time of the coup. This variable determines treatment assignment —whether the respondent was exposed to at least one year of high school education under the dictatorship. Individuals who were younger than 18 years old in 1973 expe-

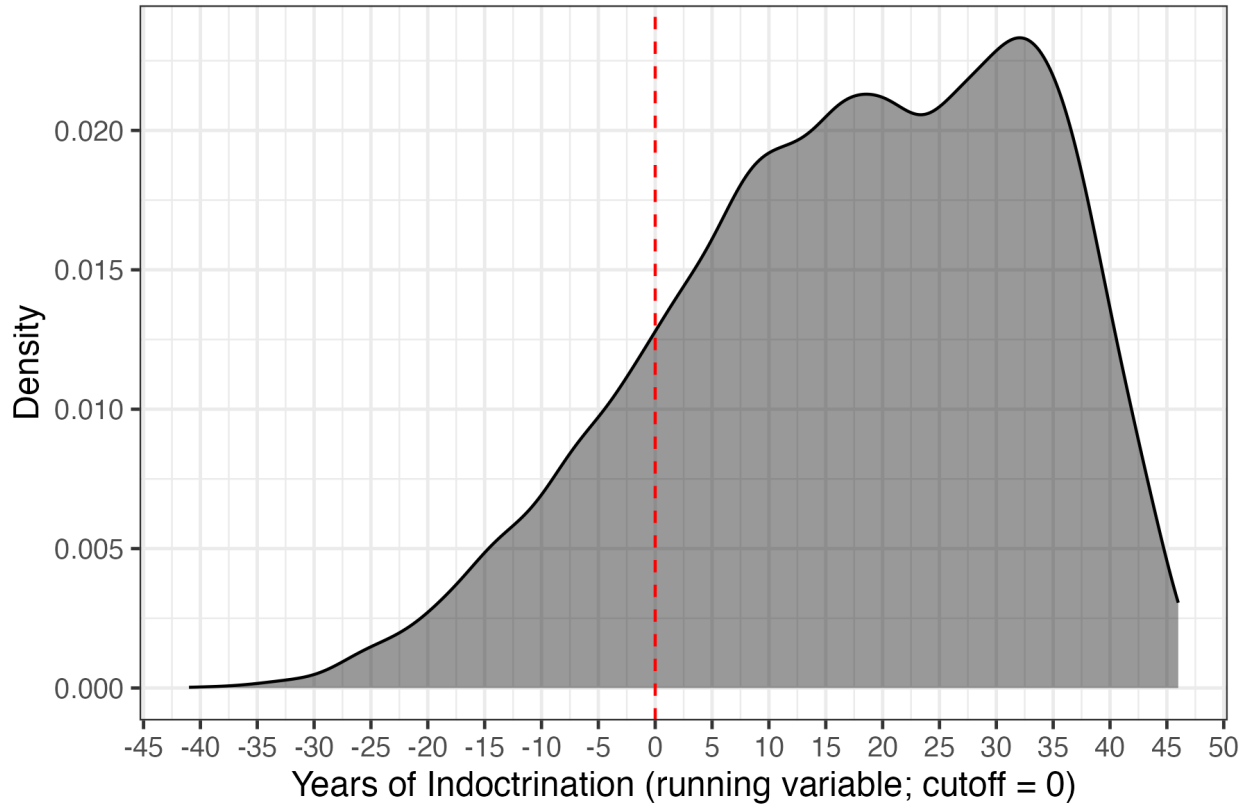
rienced at least one full year of authoritarian indoctrination, whereas those who were older than 18 in 1973 had completed high school just before the coup. To construct this variable, we use the respondent’s age at the time of the survey and the survey year to infer their birth year and, subsequently, their age at the time of the coup.

In our main specification, we center the running variable around zero, assigning a value of zero to individuals who were 18 years old in 1973. As a result, the centered running variable can take both positive and negative values, reflecting the relative timing of schooling in relation to the coup. Negative values indicate individuals who completed high school before the regime began, while positive values represent those who were still in high school at the time of the coup. For example, under this scale, the running variable takes a value of 1 for individuals who were exposed to at least one year of high school education under Pinochet, and -1 if such individual finished high school a year before the coup—that is, under Allende.² Figure 1 shows the standardized running variable density distribution. Because birth cohort cannot be manipulated, the density should evolve smoothly through the cutoff; a formal manipulation test confirms no discontinuity in the density at the threshold (Appendix J)³.

²Because the Bicentenario Survey records age rather than year of birth, we impute the birth cohort as (survey year $-$ age). This imputation can err by at most one year, and only in one direction (assigning a respondent to a slightly younger cohort). In Appendix K we quantify this misclassification using the World Values Survey—which records both age and year of birth—and show that it cannot contaminate the control group and, if anything, biases our estimates toward zero.

³We test whether units sorted across the cutoff, which would undermine the as-good-as-random assignment that the design relies on. Here manipulation is implausible by construction: the running variable is birth cohort, which respondents cannot choose and could not have reported strategically with respect to a threshold that was not defined until the 1973 coup. Consistent with this, formal density tests reveal no discontinuity in the density of the running variable at the cutoff. A McCrary (2008) test returns a log density difference of 0.148 ($p = 0.24$), and the local-polynomial density test of Cattaneo et al. (2020) returns a density difference of 0.006 ($p = 0.56$); neither rejects the null of no manipulation, and the conclusion is robust to including the excluded 1955 cohort and to using the full cross-section. Table J1 and Figure J1 (Appendix J) report these tests and the underlying cohort density.

Figure 1: Running Variable Density Distribution



Note: The figure displays the kernel density distribution of the running variable—defined as 18 minus the respondent's age in 1973—for respondents in the Bicentenario Survey who completed high school. The x-axis measures the resulting "years of indoctrination" exposure, with zero marking the cutoff between untreated (left of zero) and treated (right of zero) cohorts. The density is estimated using a standard Gaussian kernel. A dashed red vertical line shows the running variable cutoff at zero, which separates respondents who were too old to receive any exposure from those who entered secondary school after the coup. The plot provides a visual check of the smoothness and support of the running variable around the cutoff.

Treatment

The treatment variable is dichotomous, taking a value of one if the subject was exposed to at least one year of high school education under the Pinochet regime and zero otherwise. Exposure is determined by the running variable described above. Substantively, the treatment encompasses all the educational changes implemented by the Pinochet government immediately following the coup, particularly those introduced during the 1974 school year.

Given this definition, it is important to clarify the rules governing grade progression. Chile's education system consisted of six years of primary school followed by six years of high school. Children were required to start first grade at the age of six, with the stipulation that they must have reached this age before the start of the school year, which typically began in early March across the country ([Biblioteca Nacional, Gobierno de Chile, 2024](#)). As a result, given that the coup was in 1973, individuals born between 1945 and 1954 are classified as control, while those born between 1956 and 1965 as treated.

This classification faces two key non-compliance challenges. First, individuals born in January or February 1955 may have started primary school in 1961 rather than 1962, thereby completing high school in 1972 instead of 1973. Second, students who repeated a grade or started school late may have graduated at an older age. For instance, someone who began school in 1961 would have finished high school in 1973 rather than 1972.

The most effective way to address the non-compliance issue is to exclude the cohort that completed high school in 1973, following ([Argote and Voytas, 2025](#)) This adjustment immediately corrects the misclassification of individuals born in early 1955 and introduces a “buffer year” for students who may have repeated a grade. There is also a substantive rationale for their exclusion: since the coup occurred in 1973 —just two months before the school year ended— it is difficult to classify this group as either treated or control. These students spent most of their final year under Allende's government and were only briefly exposed to the regime change. While this might suggest classifying them as controls, the abrupt political transition may have affected them enough to justify treating them as exposed.

Outcomes

Regarding the outcomes, we use variables which capture different aspects of individuals' *pro-market attitudes*. For all items, we coded the scales so that higher values reflect more pro-market and lower values reflect more pro-state. The variables are the following:

- **Individual vs. State Responsibility in Well-being** asked whether individuals should be

responsible for their own well-being (10) or whether the state should take responsibility (1).

- **Growth vs. Equality** captured priorities for the country, from emphasizing high and sustained economic growth (10) to emphasizing social equality and more equitable income distribution (1).
- **Targeting vs. Universalism** assessed support for state aid, ranging from targeting only the poorest and most vulnerable (10) to providing equal aid to all citizens (1).
- **Meritocracy vs. Welfare** measured beliefs about what is most important for personal advancement, from achieving success through personal effort, training, and entrepreneurship (10) to relying on state guarantees such as good education and employment (1).

To capture the **overall market-oriented economic attitude**, we combine the four items into a **mean index** — computed as the average of all available items for a given respondent. We prefer this over a simple additive index because not all four items were fielded in every survey wave; the mean index accommodates this by dividing by the number of available items, ensuring comparability across respondents regardless of how many items they answered. As a robustness check, we also estimate models using a **PCA-based index**, restricting the sample to survey waves where all four items are available.

All items are measured on a 1-10 scale, which we rescale to 0-1 for analysis. Now, our main outcome variable is a binary indicator of **strong pro-market attitudes**, equal to 1 when the rescaled response is at or above the midpoint (0.5) and 0 otherwise. We also included the non-dichotomous version as a robustness check. This operationalization rests on the premise that indoctrination works by instilling core beliefs rather than merely nudging attitudes along a continuum — if so, its effects should be most visible among those who cross this threshold, reflecting a qualitative shift in orientation rather than a marginal change. Moreover, it is precisely this subset of individuals, those with crystallized market preferences, whose attitudes are strong enough to plausibly shape political behavior and policy demand, making them the population most relevant for understanding how authoritarian schooling translates into durable political consequences.

Table 1 reports the number of respondents available for each economic attitude item across survey waves, restricted to individuals within 10 years of the cutoff who completed high school. Individual responsibility is fielded consistently throughout the entire period, appearing in all nine waves. Growth is available from 2006 and continuously from 2014 onward. Targeting and meritocracy first appear in 2012, and from 2014 onward all four items are available simultaneously.

Table 1: Sample availability by survey year and economic attitude item

Year	Number of respondents available per item			
	Individual Responsibility	Growth	Targeting	Meritocracy
2006	330	330	0	0
2009	390	0	0	0
2011	345	0	0	0
2012	360	0	360	362
2013	341	0	340	341
2014	326	324	326	326
2015	314	314	314	314
2016	368	366	368	369
2017	464	467	469	468

Note: Sample restricted to respondents within 10 years of the cutoff, excluding the 1973 cohort, with a completed high school degree. Zeros indicate the item was not fielded in that survey wave.

Research Design

The core identification challenge is to isolate the effect of exposure to the Pinochet curriculum from other factors that may differ systematically across birth cohorts. We describe here the causal logic underlying our design, the identifying assumptions, the key threats to validity, and how our empirical choices address them.

Estimand. Our goal is to recover a Local Average Treatment Effect (LATE): the average causal effect of exposure to the Pinochet curriculum for cohorts near the 1955 cutoff. Because treatment assignment is deterministic —birth cohort fully determines whether a student completed

high school before or after the coup — the LATE at the cutoff corresponds to the treatment effect for those born near the threshold. The estimates should be read as the effect of experiencing at least one year of high school under Pinochet on economic attitudes, for individuals who were in secondary school in the early years following the coup.

Counterfactual. The most internally valid comparison our design affords is between the 1954 and 1956 birth cohorts — the two cohorts immediately on either side of the cutoff. Students born in 1954 completed their final year of high school in 1972, entirely under the Allende government. Students born in 1956 completed high school in 1974, meaning that they had one full year of education under Pinochet. This is the narrowest possible definition of treatment exposure, which minimizes the scope for confounding by broad cohort effects. The argument is not that these adjacent cohorts experienced literally identical external conditions. Rather, the identifying claim is that family background, local context, macroeconomic conditions during childhood, and broader cultural trends should evolve smoothly across the cutoff, so that no other factor affecting later economic attitudes changes discretely exactly at the 1955 threshold. This narrowest comparison (bandwidth of one year either side of the cutoff, $BW = 1$) therefore provides the most credible estimate in terms of bias, corresponding to comparing those born in 1954 versus those born in 1956.

Bias-variance tradeoff. There is an inherent tradeoff between internal validity and statistical precision in our research design. At the narrowest window ($BW = 1$), comparing only the 1954 and 1956 cohorts minimizes the risk of cohort-driven confounding, but the small sample produces wide confidence intervals. Widening the bandwidth increases statistical power but raises the possibility that observed differences reflect generational trends rather than the treatment. We report estimates across all bandwidths from 1 to 10 to make this tradeoff transparent and to show that our findings are not confined to a particular specification. Substantively, the bias-variance tradeoff maps onto a tradeoff between causal credibility and generalizability: narrow-bandwidth estimates speak most cleanly to the 1954/1956 comparison, while wider-bandwidth estimates capture the average effect across more cohorts.

Our identification here rests on a local-randomization assumption rather than on continuity at the cutoff (Cattaneo et al., 2024). Thus, we do not select a single data-driven “optimal” bandwidth. The MSE-optimal bandwidth selectors developed for continuity-based RD target the bias of extrapolating a nonparametric regression to the cutoff — a problem that does not arise when treatment is taken to be as-if randomly assigned within a narrow window of adjacent cohorts. Accordingly, the narrowest window ($BW = 1$) is our primary and most credible specification, and the wider windows we report do not represent an optimized bandwidth: they simply include more cohorts and therefore deliver more statistical power, at the cost of greater exposure to cohort confounding. We highlight the $BW = 5$ window in several descriptive and subgroup exhibits for this reason alone — it retains enough observations to estimate effects within smaller cells — and not because it optimizes any bias-variance criterion.

Potential threats. The main threat to identification is the possibility of *cohort effects*: systematic differences between birth cohorts that are unrelated to the treatment. If individuals born in the late 1950s differ from those born in the early 1950s along dimensions such as family economic circumstances, urbanization patterns, or broader socializing conditions during childhood, these pre-existing differences could confound our estimates. This concern is most acute at wider bandwidths, where we include in the comparison cohorts that are more temporally distant from one another. One way to evaluate the degree to which treatment groups are comparable is to assess balance in pre-treatment covariates. Yet, given that the data are collected decades after treatment, the set of observed pre-treatment covariates is limited; gender is the only one consistently available across waves, so balance evidence is necessarily partial ⁴.

Several features of our design nevertheless reduce this concern. First, our most credible specification relies on the narrowest possible bandwidth around the cutoff, comparing individuals born just before and just after the threshold. Within this minimal window, there is less room for unrelated cohort-specific shocks to generate a discontinuity exactly at the treatment threshold.

⁴Table A2 (Appendix A) reports compact descriptive comparisons for three anchor windows: $BW = 1$, $BW = 5$, and $BW = 10$. Gender is the only pre-treatment covariate observed consistently across survey waves. Panel B reports post-treatment demographics for context only and should not be interpreted as evidence of pre-treatment comparability.

Second, we use survey-wave fixed effects to absorb external events at the time of interview that affect all respondents in a given wave, such as common macroeconomic or political shocks. These controls do not absorb cohort-specific experiences earlier in life; for those, the design relies on the local-randomization assumption that all other determinants of the outcome evolve smoothly across adjacent birth cohorts around the cutoff.

Third, we assess whether our results are robust to alternative bandwidth choices, and placebo tests using alternative cutoffs and treatment groups ⁵. These exercises cannot prove the identifying assumption, but they allow us to evaluate the likelihood that an unrelated external event rather than exposure to the educational reform generates the observed discontinuity (see the Robustness Checks section for details).

A second potential threat is *selection into high school (HS) completion*: if the coup differentially affected HS completion rates across cohorts, restricting the sample to HS completers could introduce sample selection bias. In other words, because the main sample is restricted to respondents with at least completed high school, the coup may have changed who completed secondary education rather than only what students were taught. To test the plausibility of this concern, we assess the degree to which the HS completion rate varies across cohorts in the full repeated cross sectional sample. Figure A4 (Appendix A) shows the results that completion rises smoothly across cohorts on both sides of the cutoff, with no visible discontinuity at 1955. While this does not rule out every form of selection, it weighs against the specific concern that the coup generated a sharp compositional break exactly at the treatment threshold.

Empirical Strategy. To estimate the effect of the indoctrination attempt on pro-market attitudes, we employ a regression discontinuity (RD) design, using the centered respondent's age at the time of the 1973 coup as the running variable and exposure to at least one year of high school

⁵See Robustness Checks section for more flasificaton test. A key one exploits the fact that the treatment operates *through the high school curriculum*. If this is correct, respondents who never attended high school — those with at most a completed middle school education, including those with incomplete middle school or no formal schooling — should show *no discontinuity* at the same 1955 cutoff, since they were never exposed to the curriculum reform. We use this group as a within-study control: if the pro-market discontinuity vanishes for this no-HS group, it corroborates the HS-curriculum interpretation. Respondents with incomplete high school are excluded from this group (they were exposed, at least partially, to the curriculum), so the comparison is clean between those who clearly never attended secondary school and those who completed all of high school.

under Pinochet as the treatment variable. The primary specification is as follows:

$$Y_{ics} = \alpha + \beta_1(Age_{1973})_{ics} + \beta_2(Coup)_{ics} + \beta_3(Coup \times Age_{1973})_{ics} + \delta_s + \varepsilon_{cs} \quad (1)$$

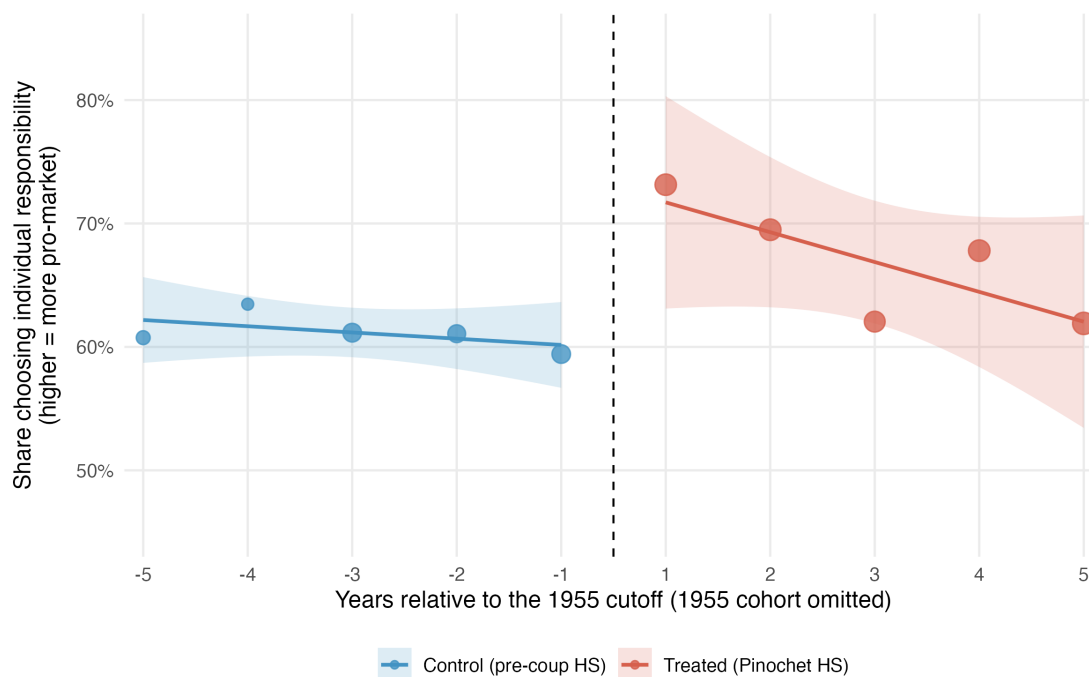
where Y_{ics} represents the outcome of interest for individual i , born in cohort c , and surveyed in wave s . The right-hand side includes centered respondent's age (Age_{1973}), the treatment variable ($Coup$), and their interaction. Survey wave fixed effects (δ_s) are included to absorb common interview-period shocks — such as contemporaneous macroeconomic or political events — that affect all individuals in a given survey wave. The coefficient of interest, β_2 , captures the effect of completing high school education after the coup. Standard errors are clustered at the cohort-survey level.⁶

As mentioned before, the identification assumption is that there is plausible randomization at the minimum possible window around the cutoff. In other words, per [Cattaneo et al. \(2024\)](#), we assume *local randomization* instead of continuity. Based on our running variable, the location of the minimum window around the threshold is known; it extends one year on either side of the cutoff. Formally, if the running variable is denoted as X_i , and treatment is defined as $T_i = (X_i \geq c)$, the identifying assumption requires a window $W = [c - w, c + w]$ for some $w > 0$, such that all units within this range were assigned to treatment or control *as if randomly* ([Cattaneo et al., 2024](#)). In our context, this means that once common survey-wave shocks are absorbed by δ_s , the remaining determinants of later economic attitudes must not change discontinuously at the 1955 cutoff for reasons other than exposure to the post-coup curriculum. Equivalently, no other cohort-specific external event or policy should generate a break at the same threshold. Under that assumption, any discontinuity in outcomes can be attributed to the treatment effect rather than to underlying systematic differences between adjacent cohorts.

⁶An alternative would be to cluster at the cohort level, given that treatment assignment is based strictly on birth cohort. However, in some models, this approach would result in only two clusters, leading to unrealistically small standard errors. Instead, clustering at the cohort-survey level is more appropriate, as it accounts for correlations within both the survey year (capturing potential period effects) and the birth cohort (capturing date-of-birth effects).

Main Results

Figure 2: Individual vs. State Responsibility Around the 1955 Cutoff (BW = ± 5)



Note: The figure plots a linear fit (OLS) separately on each side of the 1955 cutoff for the binary indicator that equals one when respondents prioritize individual over state responsibility for well-being (the pro-market response). The sample is restricted to the ± 5 -year window, excluding the 1955 cohort. Shaded areas are 95% confidence intervals from the linear fit. Points show cell means, sized by the number of observations in each running-variable cell. The 1955 cohort is omitted and the x-axis is evenly spaced to avoid a visual gap.

Figure 2 descriptively illustrates the impact of authoritarian indoctrination on economic attitudes, specifically on individual versus state responsibility. Within the ± 5 window, cohorts immediately to the right of the cutoff are consistently more likely to prioritize individual responsibility than cohorts immediately to the left. While this figure is descriptive, it previews the substantive pattern that we test more systematically using a regression discontinuity design below.

Table 2 reports the item-level RD estimates across the full set of birth-cohort windows, from the narrowest comparison (1954 and 1956 only) to the widest window (1945–1965). The two composite index specifications are moved to Appendix B and treated as robustness checks; the main

Table 2: Effect of Pinochet Indoctrination on Individual Pro-Market Attitude Dimensions

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel A: Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>										
Indoctrination	0.14*** (0.04)	0.18** (0.09)	0.20*** (0.06)	0.16*** (0.05)	0.14*** (0.05)	0.14*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.13*** (0.04)	0.14*** (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
Clusters	18	36	54	72	90	108	126	144	162	180
R ²	0.05	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.67	0.67	0.65	0.65	0.64	0.65	0.64	0.65	0.64	0.64
<i>Panel B: Growth vs. Equality</i>										
Indoctrination	0.08 (0.05)	0.00 (0.12)	0.17* (0.09)	0.19** (0.08)	0.16** (0.06)	0.14** (0.06)	0.09 (0.06)	0.06 (0.05)	0.06 (0.05)	0.06 (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
Clusters	18	36	54	72	90	108	126	144	162	180
R ²	0.05	0.04	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.30	0.33	0.31	0.31	0.32	0.32	0.33	0.33	0.33	0.33
<i>Panel C: Targeting vs. Universalism</i>										
Indoctrination	0.10*** (0.03)	0.10 (0.11)	0.12 (0.07)	0.10 (0.07)	0.16** (0.06)	0.18*** (0.06)	0.17*** (0.05)	0.15*** (0.05)	0.12** (0.05)	0.10** (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
Clusters	18	36	54	72	90	108	126	144	162	180
R ²	0.03	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.56	0.56	0.54	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53
<i>Panel D: Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>										
Indoctrination	0.06** (0.03)	0.08 (0.11)	0.01 (0.12)	0.09 (0.09)	0.10 (0.08)	0.07 (0.07)	0.09 (0.06)	0.09 (0.06)	0.08 (0.06)	0.05 (0.05)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
Clusters	18	36	54	72	90	108	126	144	162	180
R ²	0.05	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.50	0.50

Note: Local randomization RD estimates. Columns report the full set of birth-cohort windows, from the narrowest comparison (1954 and 1956 only) to the widest comparison (1945–1965). All panels use the binary strong-preference indicator (≥ 0.5) for the corresponding dimension. Composite-index results are reported separately in Appendix B as robustness checks. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level in parentheses; *Clusters* reports the number of such birth-year $\times$ survey-year cells in each window. Because the narrowest windows rest on few clusters, cluster-robust asymptotic significance there should be read alongside the design-based p -values (from randomization inference and a wild-cluster bootstrap) reported in Appendix L (Table L1). All specifications include survey-year fixed effects; specifications with BW > 1 also include a linear control for the running variable. Analytical sample restricted to respondents with at least a completed high school degree and in socioeconomic groups 1–5 (the standard GSE classification used in Chilean surveys). Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

table therefore concentrates on the four substantive attitude dimensions, using the dichotomous outcome described in the previous section.

The clearest and most robust effect is on individual versus state responsibility (Panel A): the probability of holding the strong pro-market view rises by roughly 14 percentage points in the narrowest comparison, remains about 14 percentage points in the wider 1950–1960 ($BW = 5$) window, and stays positive and statistically significant in every specification. The other dimensions are more bandwidth-dependent. Growth versus equality (Panel B) is strongest in the mid-range windows; targeting versus universalism (Panel C) is positive throughout and significant from the mid-range windows onward; and meritocracy (Panel D) is positive but consistently weaker and less precisely estimated. Table A1 (Appendix A) shows that these item-level patterns aggregate into positive effects on both the continuous and binary composite indices, so the results are not an artifact of focusing on individual items. Coefficient plots across the full BW 1–10 range are reported in Figures A1 and A2, and Figure A3 (Appendix A) replicates the composite result using the first principal component; the pattern of positive effects is consistent across these alternative aggregations.

Our headline outcome is a binary indicator for a “strong” pro-market response (at or above the scale midpoint), which follows from the premise that indoctrination instills crystallized beliefs rather than nudging attitudes continuously. It is nonetheless important to check whether the effects also appear on the underlying $[0, 1]$ scale; Table B1 (Appendix B) re-estimates every specification on the continuous outcomes. The responsibility effect is the most robust: it is significant on the continuous scale even at the narrowest window (0.04, $p < 0.01$ at $BW = 1$). The continuous growth effect is actually significant at $BW = 1$ (0.07, $p < 0.05$). Targeting and meritocracy, by contrast, are insignificant on the continuous scale at $BW = 1$ and strengthen only at wider windows. The responsibility effect thus holds on both the binary and continuous scales, whereas the narrow-window evidence for the remaining dimensions is more sensitive to how the outcome is operationalized and is best supported at the wider bandwidths.

Robustness Checks

Middle-School-Only Completers

A central prediction of the HS-curriculum mechanism is that it should operate *exclusively* through high school exposure. Individuals who never attended high school — those with at most a completed middle school education, including those with incomplete middle school or no formal schooling — were not exposed to the curriculum reform and therefore should exhibit no discontinuity at the 1955 cutoff. We exploit this as a falsification test: we replicate the main RDD using respondents who never attended high school, explicitly excluding those with incomplete high school (who could have received at least some exposure to the post-coup curriculum).⁷

Table C1 (Appendix C) reports these estimates for the composite index and all individual dimensions. Across all bandwidths, the point estimates are very small, always statistically indistinguishable from zero, and show no consistent pattern. This null result — for the same cohorts, the same cutoff, and the same estimator — supports the interpretation that the discontinuity in the main analysis reflects the HS curriculum rather than a broader cohort-level shift in attitudes around 1955.

Placebo Cutoff: Fake Coup Year (1967)

A second robustness check tests whether a falsified cutoff produces spurious discontinuities. We re-estimate the RDD assuming the coup occurred in 1967 rather than 1973, shifting the fake cutoff to birth year 1949. The idea is to have a placebo cutoff lying entirely in the control group. We use a ± 5 -year bandwidth (cohorts 1944–1954), meaning that both sides of this placebo threshold

⁷In the Chilean system, *educación básica* denotes primary schooling and *educación media* denotes secondary (high) school. The no-HS indicator (*ms_only*) is coded from the Bicentenario education variable, which uses different scales across survey periods. For 2006–2015 (10-point scale): *ms_only* = $\text{educ} \in \{1, 2, 3\}$ (“Sin estudios”, “Básica incompleta”, “Básica completa”), with $\text{educ} = 4$ (“Media incompleta”) excluded as a buffer. For 2016–2017 (8-point scale): *ms_only* = $\text{educ} \in \{1, 2\}$; $\text{educ} = 1$ is a composite comprising “Sin estudios”, “Básica incompleta”, and pre-school categories, and $\text{educ} = 2$ = “Básica completa”. Category 3 (“Media incompleta”) records *zero respondents* in both waves — the scale jumps directly from completed básica to completed media .

consist of individuals who completed high school before the coup, ensuring no contamination from the true 1973 cutoff. If the true discontinuity is driven by the 1973 coup, we should find no significant effect at this threshold.

Table [D1](#) (Appendix D) reports these estimates. Point estimates are small and statistically insignificant across all bandwidths, confirming that the 1973 threshold — not any nearby date — is the source of the treatment effect.

Survey-Wave and Age-at-Survey Diagnostics

A standard concern with survey data is the age-period-cohort (APC) problem: any observed gap between groups could reflect age differences, the survey round in which they were interviewed, or their birth cohort. In our design, however, two of these three components are already handled. *Cohort* is the treatment itself — it cannot be differenced away without discarding the very variation that identifies the effect. *Survey wave* (period) is controlled for through wave fixed effects in every specification. The only remaining APC concern is *age at interview*: treated cohorts are mechanically younger when surveyed (born after 1955), so if pro-market attitudes declined with age, the gap could reflect respondents' age rather than their schooling.

Figure [H3](#) (Appendix H) addresses this directly. The estimated age profile of pro-market responses is somewhat flat: aging does not reduce pro-market attitudes — it slightly increases them. Since treated cohorts are younger at interview compared to control, life-cycle predicts they should be *less* pro-market — so finding a pro-market effect means the treatment effect is conservatively estimated.

For additional transparency, Figures [H1](#) and [H2](#) in Appendix H show the raw outcomes by survey wave and by birth cohort respectively, within the BW = 5 window. Both groups' attitudes vary across survey rounds as expected; the treated-control gap is visible across waves and cohorts.

Radical Change or Dosage?

A natural question is whether the treatment is best understood as a *dosage* —years of exposure to the Pinochet-era high school curriculum— or as a *discrete event*: the sudden imposition of the regime’s indoctrination project itself, with all the institutional, symbolic, and curricular disruption it entailed. Under the dosage interpretation, one additional year of exposure to the Pinochet HS curriculum should generate a marginal increase in pro-market attitudes. Under the radical-change interpretation, the key event is the onset of the indoctrination project itself — the abrupt displacement of one ideological curriculum by another — and additional years of exposure may matter less.

To probe this distinction, Table F1 (Appendix F) replicates the main analysis *excluding* the 1954 and 1956 birth cohorts (i.e., those at running = ± 1). This removes the marginal cohorts who experienced only one year of difference from the cutoff, and compares groups with greater dosage distance. If the dosage interpretation is correct, these estimates should be at least as large as the main results (more dosage, stronger effect). If the radical-change interpretation is correct, removing the narrowest cohorts should not substantially alter the estimates.

The estimates are broadly similar to those in the main analysis (Table 2), and in some cases somewhat larger, but they are also noisier, suggesting that the main results are not driven solely by the closest cohorts. This pattern is consistent with the idea that the onset of the indoctrination project itself was a critical juncture that shaped attitudes, but that additional years of exposure to the Pinochet curriculum also contributed to reinforcing and amplifying this effect. In other words, the abrupt imposition of the new curriculum may have set the stage for a shift in attitudes, while the dosage of subsequent exposure helped to entrench and amplify this shift over time.

Persistence Mechanisms

The results presented above document that exposure to the Pinochet curriculum produces a marked and durable shift in pro-market economic attitudes, measurable decades after the end of

the dictatorship. A natural question follows: why do these effects persist for so long? First and foremost, we conjecture that a core explanation lies in the intensity and life stage at which this indoctrination happened: as we discussed before, the regime, through the education system, attempted extensively to eliminate any Marxist and collectivist ideas and to promote pro-market values among individuals during their pre-adult socialization. This combination of ideological intensity and timing during a formative, malleable stage of political socialization plausibly explains why the effects proved so durable. Now, we test two additional, complementary mechanisms that may account for the durability of the indoctrination effect.

The performance of market-oriented institutions in the 1990s and 2000s. Beliefs do not persist in a vacuum; they are reinforced or eroded by subsequent experience. A first mechanism we test is that citizens reinforced their beliefs in the value of private institutions by actually using them. The economic reforms conducted by the dictatorship were accompanied by a privatization of many public services, including pensions, education, and health insurance. For individuals who had been educated to associate market principles with prosperity and collectivism with economic failure, the usage of privatized services may have reinforced the belief in the virtues of pro-market ideas.

We assess this mechanism by using *actual use of private services* as an intermediate outcome. That is, we analyze whether treated cohorts should be more likely to use private health insurance later in life, reflecting behavioral selection into private institutions. Specifically, we focus on private health insurance (Isapre) — the iconic market institution created by the Pinochet reforms in 1981 and retained through the democratic transition. We harmonize the Isapre indicator across the Bicentenario Survey waves (2006, 2014, 2016, 2017). Table [II](#) (Appendix I) reports the results.

The prediction does not hold. Panel A reports the treatment effect on the probability of using private health insurance. The point estimate at $BW=5$ is close to zero (-0.03 , SE 0.09) and never crosses conventional significance across the bandwidth range. We therefore find no evidence that the Pinochet curriculum induced its treated cohorts to select into the private health system.

Reduced participation in counter-socializing organizations. A second mechanism relates

to behavioral selection into — or exclusion from — organizational environments that might otherwise attenuate pro-market attitudes. In particular, we conjecture that individuals exposed to the Pinochet curriculum may be less likely to participate in labor unions and other collective organizations that have historically served as sites of redistributive preference formation and left-leaning political socialization (Ahlquist, 2017). The Pinochet curriculum was explicitly designed to delegitimize collectivist forms of organization and to promote an ethic of individual responsibility over solidarity-based action. If this indoctrination was effective not only in shaping attitudes but also in shaping behavior, it may have reduced the propensity of treated cohorts to seek out or remain in associational environments capable of counteracting their early pro-market socialization.

To test this, we analyze the 2016 Bicentenario survey, the wave that includes questions on individuals' current and prior participation in labor unions. We apply the same model specification used throughout the paper to test whether treated cohorts were less likely to engage with unions. Table I2 (Appendix I) reports the results.

Panel A reports the treatment effect on the probability of union participation. The point estimates are negative across the entire bandwidth range, consistent with the expectation that individuals exposed to the Pinochet curriculum are less likely to participate in labor unions. At BW=5, the estimate is -0.24 (SE 0.14, $p < 0.10$). The effect reaches conventional significance for intermediate bandwidths (BW=4 through BW=8, peaking at BW=7: -0.32 , SE 0.12, $p < 0.01$), but loses precision at the narrowest and widest windows, where the estimates retain the same negative sign but are no longer statistically distinguishable from zero. Because this test relies on a single survey wave, statistical power is more limited than in our main pooled specifications, and we read this evidence as suggestive of reduced union participation among treated cohorts rather than fully conclusive.

In sum, treated cohorts show no evidence of selecting into the private services they were taught to value, but tentative evidence of withdrawing from unions —the organizations most likely to challenge those values. This asymmetry points to a plausible persistence mechanism: reduced exposure to counter-socializing institutions, rather than reinforcement through market experience,

may help sustain pro-market attitudes over time. Though data limitations mean these tests are best read as plausibility probes rather than definitive evidence.

Median-Voter Implications and Pro-Market Persistence

Having documented an attitudinal change at the individual level, and explore some plausible mechanisms that sustain it, we now turn to what we see as the central political payoff of these results: whether the individual-level effects aggregate into a shift in the *distribution* of political ideology — and specifically whether they may have moved the median voter rightward, providing a behavioral mechanism through which the Pinochet curriculum contributed to the persistence of market institutions under democracy. For the next analysis, we include only respondents who place themselves ideologically.⁸

Table 3: Effect of Pinochet Indoctrination on Left-Right Ideological Self-Placement

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>A. Left-Right Ideology (full scale, 1–10; 10 = far right)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.75*** (0.21)	1.27** (0.57)	1.11*** (0.42)	0.92*** (0.35)	0.92*** (0.30)	0.63** (0.28)	0.39 (0.25)	0.37 (0.24)	0.49** (0.22)	0.62*** (0.21)
Obs.	266	542	791	1,031	1,293	1,564	1,865	2,165	2,468	2,737
R ²	0.06	0.04	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	5.20	5.32	5.36	5.33	5.32	5.30	5.29	5.29	5.28	5.27
<i>B. Left-Right Ideology (excl. 5–6; 1–4 = left, 7–10 = right)</i>										
Indoctrination	1.02* (0.57)	1.85* (0.96)	1.65** (0.79)	1.38** (0.62)	1.48*** (0.53)	1.03** (0.48)	0.65 (0.44)	0.62 (0.42)	0.84** (0.39)	1.06*** (0.36)
Obs.	148	310	429	555	684	829	985	1,145	1,318	1,475
R ²	0.10	0.06	0.06	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	5.13	5.33	5.41	5.37	5.33	5.31	5.29	5.28	5.26	5.25

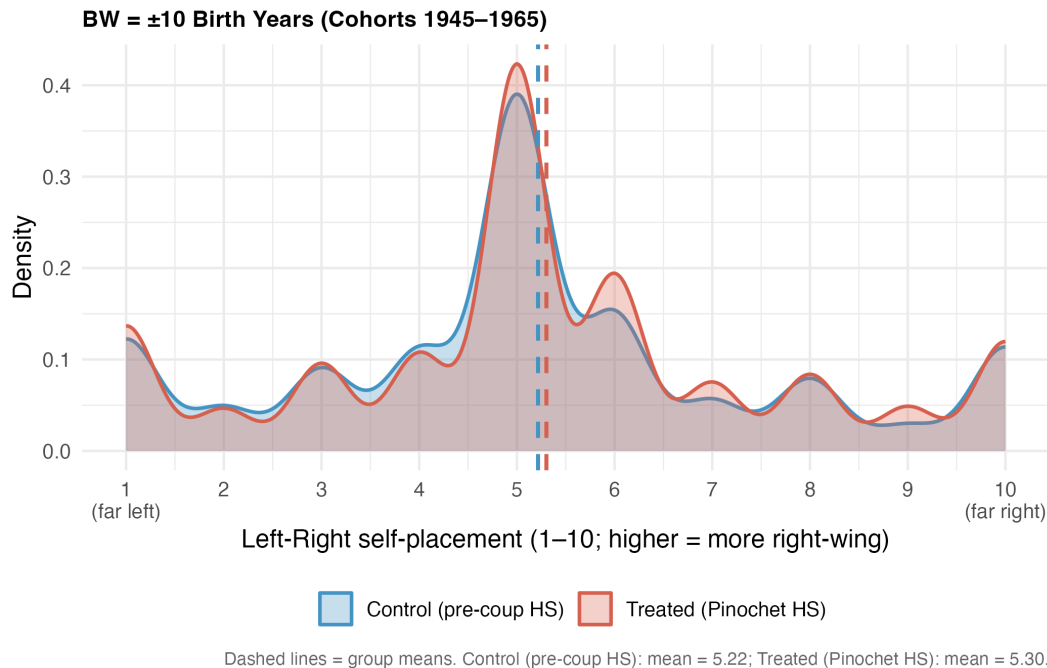
Note: Local randomization RD estimates (same estimator as main results). Each column corresponds to one bandwidth (birth cohort range). Panel A: full left-right ideology scale (1–10; 1 = far left, 10 = far right). Panel B: restricted to respondents placing themselves at 1–4 (left) or 7–10 (right); values 5–6 excluded as typically chosen by respondents without a clear ideological identity. Standard errors clustered at birth-year $\times$ survey-year level in parentheses. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006–2009 and 2012–2017. Sample: respondents with at least a completed high school degree.

⁸We find no evidence of differential abstention from ideological self-placement between treated and control cohorts (Appendix E), so restricting to respondents with a placement does not bias this comparison.

Table 3, Panel A shows that treated cohorts place themselves systematically further to the right on the standard 1–10 ideology scale. At the $BW = 5$ window, the point estimate is about 0.9 scale points, and the effect remains positive across all bandwidths. Panel B sharpens the comparison by restricting attention to respondents with a *clear* ideological placement, excluding values 5 and 6—that is, centrist people. In that subsample the estimates are even larger, ranging from roughly 0.6 to 1.9 points depending on the bandwidth. These results suggest that the ideological displacement is not merely noise in the center of the scale; it is especially pronounced among respondents who express a non-centrist political identity.

Figure 3 shows the underlying distributions and makes the median-voter logic visually explicit: it plots kernel density estimates of left-right ideology for treated and control cohorts within a ± 10 birth-year bandwidth. Both distributions peak around the center, but the treated density places visibly greater mass in the upper half, and its mean (dashed red line) sits to the right of the control mean (dashed blue line)—precisely the rightward displacement of the pivotal voter that the median-voter argument requires. Figure E1 (Appendix E) reaches the same conclusion among respondents who report a clear ideological placement (1–4 = left, 7–10 = right). [Argote and Voytas \(2025\)](#) document a related finding using the same Bicentenario Survey, but with a categorical measure of ideological identification. Our analysis extends theirs by exploiting the full continuous 1–10 scale and by showing that the movement is not merely away from the left, but actively toward the right.

Figure 3: Distribution of Left-Right Ideology by Treatment Group (BW = ± 10)



Note: Kernel density of left-right self-placement (1–10 scale; 1 = far left, 10 = far right, so higher values indicate a more right-wing position) for control (cohorts 1945–1954, blue) and treated (cohorts 1956–1965, red) groups within a ± 10 birth-year bandwidth. Dashed coloured vertical lines mark group means: control = 5.22; treated = 5.30. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006–2009 and 2012–2017 (waves 2010 and 2011 did not include the ideology item). Sample: respondents with at least a completed high school degree.

Taken together, these patterns — a rightward shift in ideology and a larger shift among the ideologically committed — carry direct implications for the median voter. Standard models predict that high inequality should generate redistributive pressure. Chile is one of the most unequal OECD economies, yet repeated redistributive reform efforts have stalled. Part of the answer lies in the preferences of pivotal voters. During Chile’s democratic consolidation in the 1990s and 2000s, treated cohorts were in their prime voting years. If the Pinochet curriculum moved the distribution of political identity rightward among those cohorts, the median voter over this period would have been more market-friendly than observable levels of inequality would predict — reducing the electoral viability of redistribution even in democratic conditions.

These distributional results speak directly to broader debates about the persistence of market institutions. The conventional narrative in comparative political economy emphasizes the *distri-*

bution of power and *institutional* mechanisms of persistence: constitutional lock-in, veto players, organized business groups, and policy feedback that raises the cost of reform (Mahoney, 2001; Madariaga, 2020). Our results do not contest these mechanisms; rather, they add a complementary behavioral dimension that has received less attention.

When Pinochet’s economists began dismantling the statist economic model in the mid-1970s, they faced a population that had been socialized under Allende’s left-wing government. The economic transformation of the 1980s was therefore not merely a technical reform; it was also a cultural project. The evidence presented here suggests that this project succeeded in reshaping the economic and ideological beliefs of the cohorts it reached. Decades later, those cohorts continue to exhibit different market preferences and different ideological self-placement than their peers who graduated just before the coup.

This argument points to a broader theoretical claim: the legacy of pro-market attitudes is not transmitted solely through institutional and power-distribution channels. It is also transmitted *behaviorally*, through the beliefs, preferences, and heuristics of citizens who were shaped during formative years by a deliberate ideological project. This behavioral transmission channel is harder to observe and more resistant to reform because beliefs are not encoded in constitutions or regulatory frameworks; they are embedded in individuals and reproduced through family, peer effects, and cultural norms across generations.

Conclusion

This paper provides evidence that the Pinochet regime’s educational reforms had lasting effects on Chilean citizens’ economic attitudes. Using a RD design that exploits cohort-level variation in exposure to the post-coup curriculum, we find that treated cohorts are approximately 10 percentage points more likely to hold strong pro-market preferences. This effect is driven primarily by stronger preferences for economic growth over equality, for targeted over universal social spending, and for individual over state responsibility for personal well-being. We further document that

these individual-level shifts aggregate into a rightward displacement of political ideology: treated cohorts locate themselves further right on the 1–10 self-placement scale.

Standard median-voter theory predicts that high inequality should generate electoral pressure for redistribution. Chile is one of the most unequal OECD economies, yet redistribution has repeatedly stalled. Part of the answer lies in the preferences of pivotal voters: if the Pinochet curriculum shifted the ideological distribution of the cohorts who dominated the electorate during Chile’s democratic consolidation, the median voter would have been more market-friendly than economic conditions alone would predict.

Our work contributes to three literatures. First, it extends research on authoritarian socialization and political indoctrination, part of a broader tradition on schooling as a tool of state social control ([Paglayan, 2022](#)). We document a case of right-wing indoctrination, complementing the dominant focus on communist legacies. Second, it enriches accounts of market-institution persistence by identifying a behavioral channel—citizen beliefs—that operates independently of formal institutional constraints. Third, it contributes to the growing literature on the long-run effects of the Pinochet regime, adding an attitudinal dimension to the documented economic and social consequences of authoritarian rule.

More broadly, our findings suggest that the durability of pro-market institutions cannot be understood without attending to the beliefs of the people who live under them. Markets persist not only because they are locked in by constitutions and veto players, but also because some citizens—partly shaped by deliberate indoctrination—have come to believe in them. The neoliberal legacy, in this sense, is behavioral as well as institutional.

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The Pro-Market Legacy of the Pinochet Regime

Online Appendix

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July 27, 2026

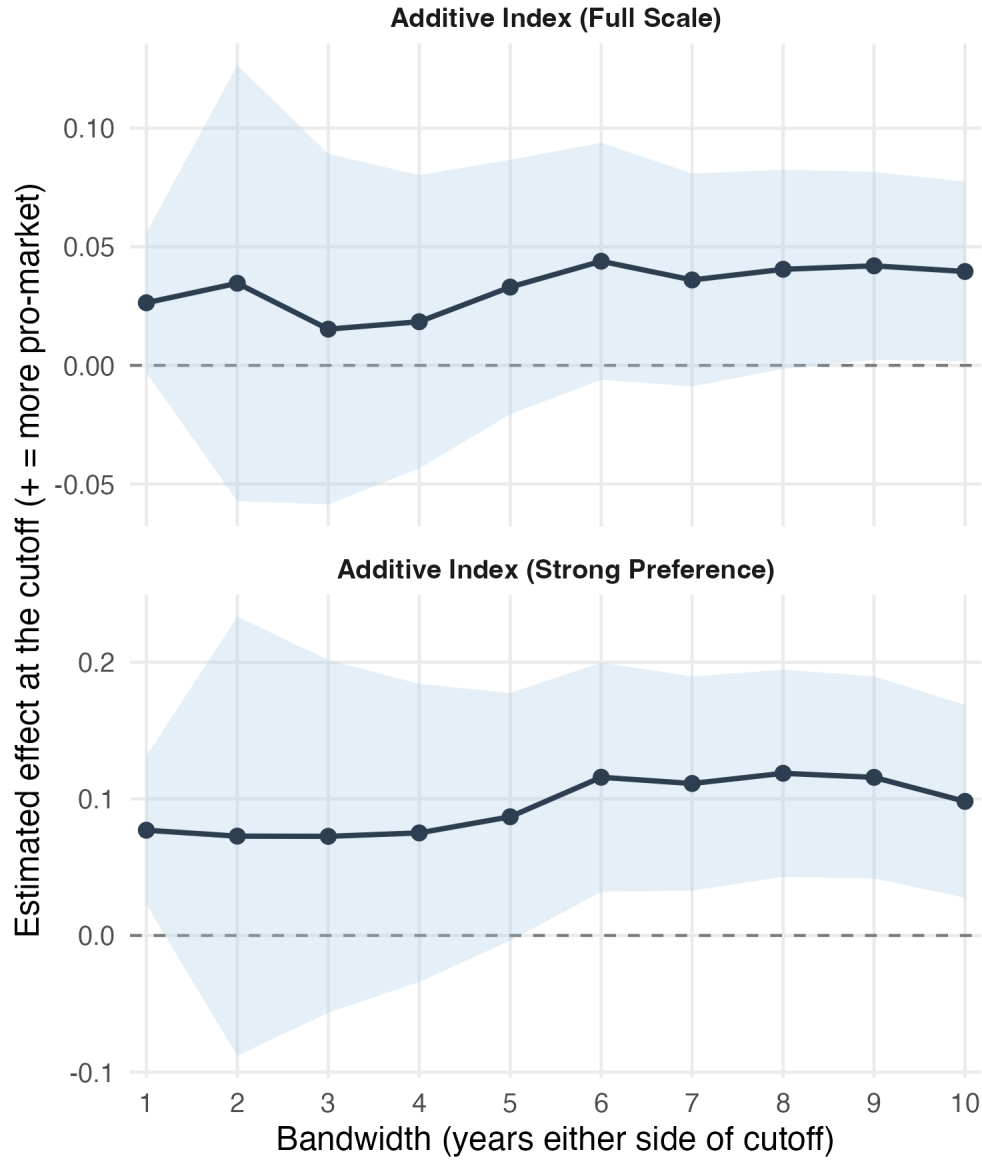
Contents

Appendix A: Additional Figures (Bicentenario)	ii
Appendix B: Regression Tables (Bicentenario, BW 1–10)	xi
Appendix C: Falsification — Middle-School-Only Completers	xiii
Appendix D: Placebo Cutoff — Fake Coup Year 1967	xv
Appendix E: Distributional Analysis — Ideology	xvii
Appendix F: Dosage Robustness	xix
Appendix G: Robustness — Controlling for Gender	xxi
Appendix H: Survey-Wave and Age-at-Survey Diagnostics	xxiii
Appendix I: Mechanism Tests	xxvi
Appendix J: Manipulation (Density) Test of the Running Variable	xxvii
Appendix K: Addressing Year of Birth	xxx

Appendix A: Additional Figures (Bicentenario)

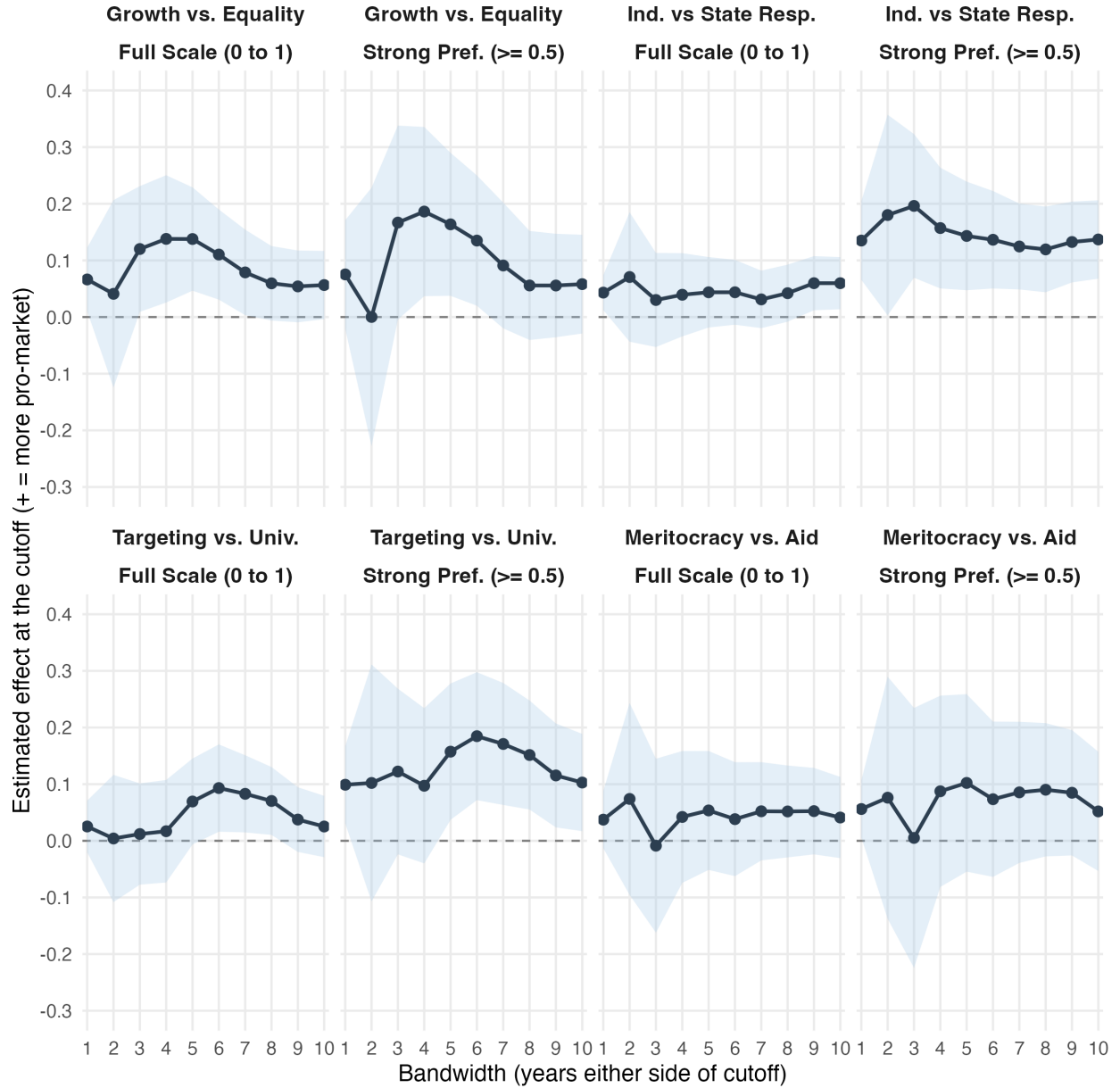
This appendix provides supplementary figures and tables for the Bicentenario analysis. Figures [A1](#) (A1) and [A2](#) (A2) report coefficient plots for the RD estimates in the main text, moved here to preserve space. Figure [A3](#) (A3) replicates the main composite-index result using the first principal component as an alternative aggregation. Figure [A4](#) (A4) shows the birth-cohort trend in HS completion used in the selection robustness discussion. Tables [A1](#) (A1), [A2](#) (A2), [A3](#) (A3), and [A4](#) (A4) report the composite-index regression results, covariate balance, and heterogeneous effects by educational attainment.

Figure A1: Effect of Indoctrination on Overall Pro-Market Attitudes (Coefficient Plot)



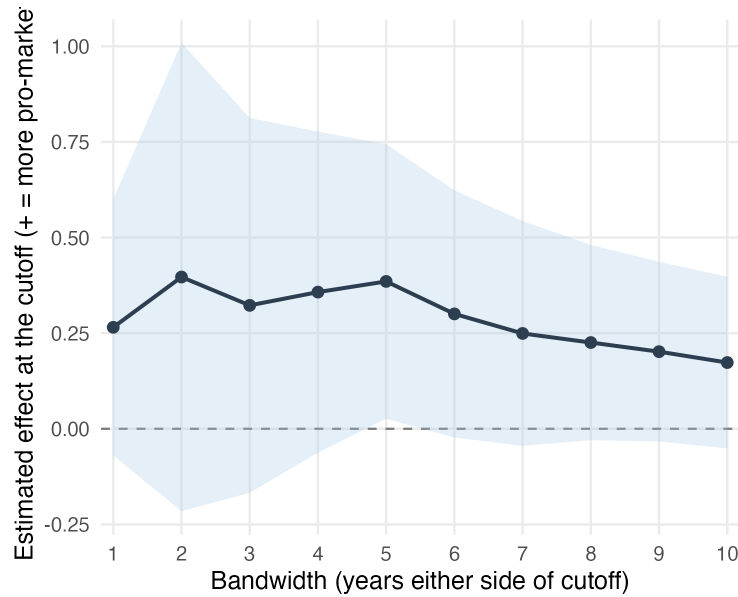
Note: Local randomization RD estimates for the composite index of pro-market attitudes, shown as a full continuous scale $[0, 1]$ and as a binary strong-preference indicator (≥ 0.5). For each bandwidth between 1 and 10, the plot shows the difference in means at the cutoff (uniform weights). Positive estimates therefore indicate that treated cohorts are more pro-market and less pro-state than adjacent control cohorts. Solid lines connect bandwidth-specific point estimates, and shaded areas show 95% confidence intervals. Robust standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Full regression tables for these two index specifications are reported in Table A1.

Figure A2: Effect of Indoctrination on Individual Pro-Market Attitudes (Coefficient Plot)



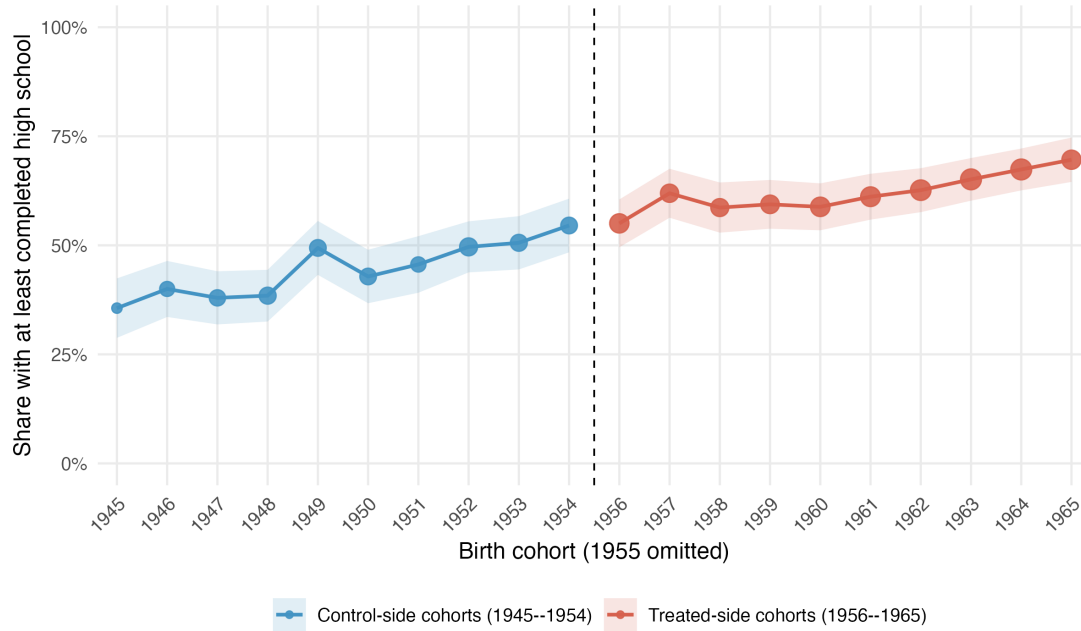
Note: Local randomization RD estimates for each of the four pro-market attitude dimensions, shown for the continuous $[0, 1]$ scale and the binary strong-preference indicator. Each item is coded so that higher values indicate the pro-market position: individual over state responsibility, growth over equality, targeting over universalism, and meritocratic effort over state aid. For each bandwidth from 1 to 10, the plot shows the difference in means at the cutoff, so positive estimates indicate that treated cohorts are more pro-market. Solid lines connect bandwidth-specific point estimates, and shaded areas show 95% confidence intervals. Robust standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Full regression tables are in Tables B1 and 2 (main text).

Figure A3: RD Estimates — First Principal Component (PCA Index)



Note: Local randomization RDD estimates for the first principal component of the four pro-market attitude items across bandwidths 1–10. Higher values of the component correspond to a more pro-market response profile, so positive estimates indicate more pro-market attitudes among treated cohorts. Solid lines connect bandwidth-specific point estimates, and shaded areas show 95% confidence intervals. Robust standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. The dashed horizontal line marks zero. Sample: surveys with four economic items available (waves 2014, 2015, 2016, and 2017).

Figure A4: High-School Completion by Birth Cohort



Note: Cohort means for the indicator equal to one if the respondent reports at least completed high school, using the full repeated cross-sections within the ± 10 birth-year window around the 1955 cutoff. Blue points correspond to control-side cohorts (1945–1954) and red points to treated-side cohorts (1956–1965). Lines connect the observed cohort means within each group, shaded areas connect the corresponding 95% confidence intervals, and point size reflects cohort cell sample size. The 1955 cohort is omitted and plotted without an artificial horizontal gap between the two sides. Completion increases gradually across cohorts, with no visible discontinuity at the 1955 threshold.

Table A1: Robustness: Composite Index Results

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel A: Additive Index (continuous, 0–1)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.03* (0.02)	0.03 (0.05)	0.02 (0.04)	0.02 (0.03)	0.03 (0.03)	0.04* (0.03)	0.04 (0.02)	0.04* (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.09	0.07	0.06	0.06	0.06	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.05	0.04
Mean DV	0.53	0.53	0.51	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.51
<i>Panel B: Additive Index (binary, ≥ 0.5)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.08*** (0.03)	0.07 (0.08)	0.07 (0.07)	0.08 (0.06)	0.09* (0.05)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.11*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.10*** (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.04	0.03	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03
Mean DV	0.59	0.60	0.57	0.58	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57

Note: Local randomization RD estimates for the two composite outcome definitions used in the paper. Panel A uses the continuous additive index on the $[0, 1]$ scale; Panel B uses the binary strong-preference indicator (≥ 0.5). These aggregated measures are reported as robustness checks for the item-level results in Table 2. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level in parentheses. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Analytical sample restricted to respondents with at least a completed high school degree. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Table A2: Covariate Balance and Descriptive Statistics by Treatment Group

	BW = 1 (54 & 56)			BW = 5 (50–60)			BW = 10 (45–65)		
	Control	Treated	Diff.	Control	Treated	Diff.	Control	Treated	Diff.
<i>Panel A: Pre-treatment covariates</i>									
Female	0.46	0.53	0.07	0.49	0.55	0.06**	0.51	0.55	0.04**
<i>Panel B: Post-treatment demographics (informational only)</i>									
HS only (no college)	0.77	0.71	-0.06	0.69	0.75	0.06***	0.71	0.76	0.06***
College or more	0.23	0.29	0.06	0.31	0.25	-0.06***	0.29	0.24	-0.06***
SES ABC1/C2	0.41	0.42	0.01	0.43	0.40	-0.03	0.43	0.40	-0.02
SES C3/D/E	0.59	0.58	-0.01	0.57	0.60	0.03	0.57	0.60	0.02
N (full sample)	138	175		621	887		1097	2020	

Note: Means reported for three bandwidths around the 1955 cutoff: BW = 1 (control 1954; treated 1956), BW = 5 (control 1950–1954; treated 1956–1960), and BW = 10 (control 1945–1954; treated 1956–1965). Panel A reports the only pre-treatment covariate observed consistently across waves (gender). Panel B reports post-treatment demographics for context only. These should not be interpreted as balance tests, since education and SES may themselves have been affected by the dictatorship. Difference reports Treated – Control. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Heterogeneous Effects by Educational Attainment

We investigate whether the indoctrination effect varies by respondents' own educational attainment. Within the main analytical sample (HS or more), we distinguish between respondents who completed only secondary education (*HS only*) and those who attended at least some university (*at least some higher education*). This distinction is theoretically important: university education exposes individuals to a broader range of ideological perspectives and may attenuate indoctrination effects acquired during adolescence (Argote 2025; Cantoni et al. 2017).

Tables A3 and A4 report the full results. Table A3 covers respondents with HS only (Panels A–E); Table A4 covers those with college or more (Panels F–J). The pattern is heterogeneous across dimensions. For *growth vs. equality* (Panels C and H), the effect is concentrated almost entirely among HS-only respondents (approximately 12–25 percentage points at narrower bandwidths, statistically significant), while the college group shows negligible and insignificant estimates across all bandwidths. By contrast, for the remaining dimensions — particularly *individual vs. state responsibility* and *targeting vs. universalism* — point estimates are similar across both groups. The estimates across subgroups are noisy and, in some cases, sensitive to bandwidth choice, making it difficult to draw firm conclusions about the role of higher education in moderating or reinforcing indoctrination effects. As such, the heterogeneous results by educational attainment remain suggestive but ultimately inconclusive.

Table A3: Heterogeneous Effects by Educational Attainment: HS Only (no college)

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel A: Pro-Market Index, HS Only</i>										
Indoctrination	0.02 (0.04)	-0.07 (0.10)	0.00 (0.08)	0.04 (0.07)	0.05 (0.06)	0.09* (0.05)	0.08 (0.05)	0.10** (0.05)	0.08* (0.05)	0.07 (0.04)
Obs.	230	445	677	885	1,099	1,349	1,593	1,839	2,083	2,320
R ²	0.06	0.05	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03
Mean DV	0.60	0.59	0.56	0.56	0.56	0.55	0.56	0.56	0.56	0.56
<i>Panel B: Individual vs. State Resp., HS Only</i>										
Indoctrination	0.09** (0.04)	0.07 (0.10)	0.14* (0.08)	0.14** (0.07)	0.12** (0.06)	0.12** (0.05)	0.11** (0.05)	0.10** (0.05)	0.11** (0.05)	0.12*** (0.04)
Obs.	230	445	677	885	1,099	1,349	1,593	1,839	2,083	2,320
R ²	0.08	0.06	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.67	0.66	0.63	0.63	0.63	0.63	0.63	0.63	0.63	0.63
<i>Panel C: Growth vs. Equality, HS Only</i>										
Indoctrination	0.11 (0.08)	0.00 (0.10)	0.20** (0.09)	0.25*** (0.08)	0.22*** (0.07)	0.17** (0.07)	0.12* (0.07)	0.07 (0.06)	0.06 (0.06)	0.05 (0.05)
Obs.	230	445	677	885	1,099	1,349	1,593	1,839	2,083	2,320
R ²	0.09	0.07	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.31	0.32	0.31	0.31	0.31	0.31	0.32	0.32	0.33	0.32
<i>Panel D: Targeting, HS Only</i>										
Indoctrination	0.03 (0.08)	-0.15 (0.13)	0.09 (0.10)	0.10 (0.09)	0.15** (0.07)	0.17** (0.07)	0.14** (0.06)	0.12** (0.06)	0.07 (0.05)	0.06 (0.05)
Obs.	230	445	677	885	1,099	1,349	1,593	1,839	2,083	2,320
R ²	0.03	0.04	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.55	0.56	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.54	0.54
<i>Panel E: Meritocracy, HS Only</i>										
Indoctrination	0.01 (0.08)	-0.01 (0.14)	-0.06 (0.13)	0.06 (0.10)	0.06 (0.09)	0.03 (0.08)	0.06 (0.08)	0.07 (0.07)	0.05 (0.06)	0.01 (0.06)
Obs.	230	445	677	885	1,099	1,349	1,593	1,839	2,083	2,320
R ²	0.07	0.03	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.02	0.02	0.01
Mean DV	0.52	0.52	0.53	0.53	0.52	0.51	0.53	0.51	0.50	0.50

Note: Local randomization RD estimates restricted to respondents who completed high school but did not attend university (college=0). Standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Table A4: Heterogeneous Effects by Educational Attainment: College or More

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel F: Pro-Market Index, College or More</i>										
Indoctrination	0.26** (0.11)	0.53*** (0.15)	0.27** (0.12)	0.17 (0.11)	0.17* (0.09)	0.17** (0.08)	0.19** (0.08)	0.18** (0.07)	0.21*** (0.07)	0.20*** (0.07)
Obs.	83	178	252	325	409	487	566	652	746	797
R ²	0.10	0.05	0.04	0.05	0.04	0.04	0.04	0.03	0.04	0.04
Mean DV	0.57	0.61	0.60	0.62	0.61	0.62	0.61	0.61	0.59	0.59
<i>Panel G: Individual vs. State Resp., College or More</i>										
Indoctrination	0.27** (0.11)	0.50*** (0.16)	0.34** (0.16)	0.18 (0.12)	0.19* (0.10)	0.17* (0.09)	0.18* (0.09)	0.16* (0.08)	0.20** (0.08)	0.19** (0.07)
Obs.	83	178	252	325	409	487	566	652	746	797
R ²	0.15	0.08	0.09	0.06	0.05	0.06	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.05
Mean DV	0.66	0.69	0.69	0.70	0.69	0.70	0.68	0.68	0.67	0.67
<i>Panel H: Growth vs. Equality, College or More</i>										
Indoctrination	0.02 (0.14)	-0.01 (0.33)	0.14 (0.21)	-0.03 (0.18)	-0.02 (0.15)	-0.00 (0.14)	-0.01 (0.13)	0.01 (0.12)	0.05 (0.11)	0.07 (0.10)
Obs.	83	178	252	325	409	487	566	652	746	797
R ²	0.13	0.06	0.04	0.05	0.03	0.05	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02
Mean DV	0.28	0.35	0.30	0.32	0.33	0.35	0.35	0.35	0.36	0.36
<i>Panel I: Targeting, College or More</i>										
Indoctrination	0.38** (0.14)	0.90*** (0.31)	0.20 (0.22)	0.06 (0.17)	0.22 (0.15)	0.24* (0.14)	0.26** (0.12)	0.25** (0.11)	0.24** (0.11)	0.24** (0.10)
Obs.	83	178	252	325	409	487	566	652	746	797
R ²	0.20	0.11	0.04	0.07	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.03
Mean DV	0.58	0.59	0.56	0.54	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.54	0.51	0.50
<i>Panel J: Meritocracy, College or More</i>										
Indoctrination	0.25 (0.15)	0.47 (0.33)	0.21 (0.23)	0.18 (0.17)	0.26* (0.14)	0.22* (0.13)	0.18 (0.12)	0.16 (0.11)	0.19* (0.10)	0.18* (0.09)
Obs.	83	178	252	325	409	487	566	652	746	797
R ²	0.13	0.06	0.05	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.04
Mean DV	0.56	0.54	0.53	0.51	0.52	0.52	0.50	0.50	0.49	0.49

Note: Local randomization RD estimates restricted to respondents who attended at least some university (college = 1). Standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Appendix B: Regression Tables (Bicentenario, BW 1–10)

This appendix reports the full regression tables for the item-level results in the main text. Table A1 (Appendix A) reports the two composite-index specifications; they are not repeated here. Table B1 reports the full local-randomization RD estimates for all Bicentenario outcomes on the continuous $[0, 1]$ scale. Columns correspond to the comparison window (birth cohort range), from the cleanest narrow window (cohorts 1954 & 1956 only) to the widest bandwidth (cohorts 1945–1965). The estimand is the average treatment effect of being exposed to the post-coup curriculum. Standard errors are heteroskedasticity-robust (HC1) clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects; specifications with $BW > 1$ also include a linear control for the running variable.

Table B1: Robustness: Continuous-Scale Estimates for Pro-Market Attitudes

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel A: Pro-Market Index (continuous scale)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.03* (0.02)	0.03 (0.05)	0.02 (0.04)	0.02 (0.03)	0.03 (0.03)	0.04* (0.03)	0.04 (0.02)	0.04* (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.09	0.07	0.06	0.06	0.06	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.05	0.04
Mean DV	0.53	0.53	0.51	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.51
<i>Panel B: Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>										
Indoctrination	0.04*** (0.02)	0.07 (0.06)	0.03 (0.04)	0.04 (0.04)	0.04 (0.03)	0.04 (0.03)	0.03 (0.03)	0.04 (0.03)	0.06** (0.02)	0.06** (0.02)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.61	0.61	0.59	0.59	0.59	0.59	0.59	0.59	0.58	0.58
<i>Panel C: Growth vs. Equality</i>										
Indoctrination	0.07** (0.03)	0.04 (0.08)	0.12** (0.06)	0.14** (0.06)	0.14*** (0.05)	0.11*** (0.04)	0.08** (0.04)	0.06* (0.03)	0.05* (0.03)	0.06* (0.03)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.05	0.04	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.32	0.33	0.32	0.33	0.33	0.33	0.34	0.34	0.34	0.34
<i>Panel D: Targeting vs. Universalism</i>										
Indoctrination	0.03 (0.02)	0.00 (0.06)	0.01 (0.05)	0.02 (0.05)	0.07* (0.04)	0.09** (0.04)	0.08** (0.03)	0.07** (0.03)	0.04 (0.03)	0.03 (0.03)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.52	0.52	0.50	0.50	0.50	0.50	0.50	0.50	0.50	0.50
<i>Panel E: Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>										
Indoctrination	0.04 (0.03)	0.07 (0.09)	-0.01 (0.08)	0.04 (0.06)	0.05 (0.05)	0.04 (0.05)	0.05 (0.04)	0.05 (0.04)	0.05 (0.04)	0.04 (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.05	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.50	0.50	0.49	0.49

Note: Local randomization RD estimates. Each column corresponds to one bandwidth (birth cohort range). The dependent variable is measured on a continuous [0,1] scale. This table complements the item-level binary results in Table 2 by showing that the same pattern appears on the full continuous scale. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level in parentheses. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Analytical sample restricted to respondents with at least a completed high school degree. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Appendix C: Falsification — Middle-School-Only Completers

This appendix reports the full falsification results for respondents who never attended high school (at most *básica completa*, including those with incomplete básica or no formal schooling). Since these individuals were not exposed to the post-coup HS curriculum, we expect no discontinuity at the 1955 cutoff. Respondents with incomplete HS are excluded as a buffer. Each panel corresponds to one outcome dimension.

Education coding across survey periods. The no-HS indicator (*ms_only*) is constructed from the Bicentenario education variable, which uses different response scales across periods. The coding has been verified against the value labels embedded in each wave’s raw SAV file:

- **2006–2015** (10-point scale): $ms_only = educ \in \{1, 2, 3\}$ (“Sin estudios”, “Básica incompleta”, “Básica completa”). $educ = 4$ (“Media incompleta”) serves as the buffer: these respondents had at least some HS exposure and are excluded from both groups.
- **2016–2017** (8-point scale): $ms_only = educ \in \{1, 2\}$. $educ = 1$ is a composite category comprising “Sin estudios”, “Básica incompleta”, and pre-school designations (“Pre Básica”, “Especial-Diferencial”); $educ = 2$ = “Básica completa”. Although category 3 (“Media incompleta”) exists in the label set, it records **zero respondents** in both 2016 and 2017 — the scale jumps directly from $educ = 2$ to $educ = 4$ (“Media completa”). The exclusion of partial HS completers is therefore natural and exact.

This verification confirms that the no-HS sample is consistently defined as “never attended high school” across all nine survey waves.

Table C1: Falsification: RD Estimates for Middle-School-Only Completers

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel A: Pro-Market Index (additive, 0–1)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.01 (0.03)	0.00 (0.07)	-0.01 (0.05)	-0.03 (0.04)	0.01 (0.04)	0.02 (0.03)	0.00 (0.03)	0.01 (0.03)	0.01 (0.03)	-0.01 (0.03)
Obs.	181	351	545	718	921	1,117	1,336	1,543	1,731	1,891
R ²	0.12	0.05	0.05	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.04	0.04	0.04	0.04
Mean DV	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.50	0.50
<i>Panel B: Pro-Market Index (binary, ≥0.5)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.05 (0.06)	0.15 (0.14)	0.00 (0.10)	-0.04 (0.08)	0.01 (0.07)	-0.00 (0.06)	0.01 (0.06)	0.00 (0.05)	0.01 (0.05)	-0.04 (0.05)
Obs.	181	351	545	718	921	1,117	1,336	1,543	1,731	1,891
R ²	0.09	0.05	0.03	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.62	0.61	0.60	0.57	0.57	0.56	0.56	0.56	0.55	0.55
<i>Panel C: Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>										
Indoctrination	0.04 (0.07)	0.08 (0.12)	0.05 (0.09)	0.02 (0.08)	0.03 (0.07)	0.04 (0.07)	-0.01 (0.06)	-0.02 (0.06)	-0.02 (0.05)	-0.06 (0.05)
Obs.	181	351	545	718	921	1,117	1,336	1,543	1,731	1,891
R ²	0.06	0.05	0.03	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.66	0.63	0.63	0.62	0.61	0.60	0.60	0.59	0.59	0.59
<i>Panel D: Growth vs. Equality</i>										
Indoctrination	0.01 (0.10)	0.07 (0.17)	-0.07 (0.12)	-0.04 (0.10)	0.05 (0.08)	0.01 (0.07)	0.05 (0.07)	0.05 (0.07)	0.04 (0.06)	-0.03 (0.06)
Obs.	181	351	545	718	921	1,117	1,336	1,543	1,731	1,891
R ²	0.07	0.06	0.07	0.08	0.08	0.07	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.05
Mean DV	0.32	0.35	0.33	0.31	0.32	0.31	0.31	0.33	0.33	0.32
<i>Panel E: Targeting vs. Universalism</i>										
Indoctrination	0.10 (0.09)	0.26** (0.12)	-0.01 (0.12)	-0.02 (0.10)	0.11 (0.09)	0.09 (0.07)	0.04 (0.08)	0.07 (0.07)	0.08 (0.06)	0.03 (0.06)
Obs.	181	351	545	718	921	1,117	1,336	1,543	1,731	1,891
R ²	0.11	0.08	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.58	0.63	0.63	0.64	0.63	0.63	0.62	0.62	0.62	0.62
<i>Panel F: Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>										
Indoctrination	0.12 (0.09)	0.32 (0.22)	-0.04 (0.15)	0.02 (0.13)	0.05 (0.10)	0.09 (0.09)	0.07 (0.09)	0.08 (0.08)	0.10 (0.07)	0.07 (0.07)
Obs.	181	351	545	718	921	1,117	1,336	1,543	1,731	1,891
R ²	0.13	0.04	0.02	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.62	0.60	0.58	0.55	0.54	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.50	0.50

Note: Local randomization RD estimates for respondents who completed only básica completa (middle school) and never attended high school. Incomplete HS completers are excluded. If the effect is driven by HS curriculum exposure, this group should show no discontinuity at the 1955 cutoff. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year × survey-year level. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Appendix D: Placebo Cutoff — Fake Coup Year 1967

This appendix reports RD estimates using a falsified running variable centered on birth year 1949 (i.e., age 18 in 1967, the fake coup year). The ± 5 bandwidth covers cohorts 1944–1954, which lie entirely within the actual control group (respondents who completed all of high school before the 1973 coup). Crucially, this window contains no observations from the real treatment group, so there is no contamination from the true 1973 cutoff. If the discontinuity in the main analysis reflects the 1973 coup rather than a spurious cohort trend, both sides of this placebo threshold should look identical, and we should find no significant effect. Each panel corresponds to one outcome dimension.

Table D1: Placebo Cutoff: RD Estimates with Fake Coup Year 1967

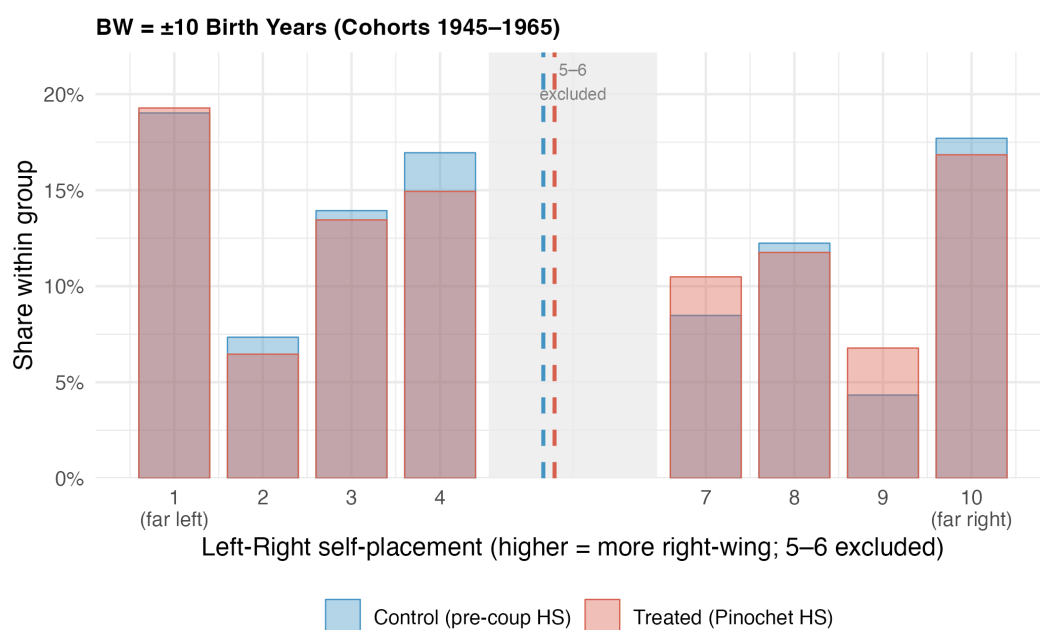
	Birth Cohort Range (fake cutoff dob = 1949)				
	48 & 50 (1)	47–51 (2)	46–52 (3)	45–53 (4)	44–54 (5)
<i>Panel A: Pro-Market Index (additive, 0–1)</i>					
Indoctrination	-0.02 (0.02)	-0.03 (0.07)	0.01 (0.04)	-0.01 (0.03)	-0.02 (0.03)
Obs.	208	405	635	834	1,052
R ²	0.05	0.02	0.04	0.05	0.05
Mean DV	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.52	0.52
<i>Panel B: Pro-Market Index (binary, ≥0.5)</i>					
Indoctrination	-0.10*** (0.03)	-0.10 (0.14)	-0.05 (0.09)	-0.10 (0.08)	-0.11 (0.07)
Obs.	208	405	635	834	1,052
R ²	0.06	0.04	0.04	0.04	0.04
Mean DV	0.58	0.59	0.57	0.57	0.57
<i>Panel C: Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>					
Indoctrination	-0.04 (0.03)	-0.01 (0.10)	-0.01 (0.08)	0.02 (0.07)	-0.01 (0.06)
Obs.	208	405	635	834	1,052
R ²	0.04	0.04	0.03	0.04	0.03
Mean DV	0.62	0.64	0.64	0.65	0.64
<i>Panel D: Growth vs. Equality</i>					
Indoctrination	-0.07 (0.06)	-0.17 (0.20)	0.09 (0.14)	0.04 (0.11)	0.02 (0.10)
Obs.	208	405	635	834	1,052
R ²	0.12	0.05	0.04	0.04	0.03
Mean DV	0.40	0.37	0.36	0.34	0.33
<i>Panel E: Targeting vs. Universalism</i>					
Indoctrination	-0.03 (0.03)	0.13 (0.13)	-0.07 (0.09)	-0.08 (0.08)	-0.10 (0.08)
Obs.	208	405	635	834	1,052
R ²	0.05	0.04	0.03	0.02	0.01
Mean DV	0.60	0.57	0.54	0.54	0.54
<i>Panel F: Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>					
Indoctrination	-0.09 (0.06)	-0.16 (0.12)	-0.12 (0.10)	-0.10 (0.08)	-0.08 (0.08)
Obs.	208	405	635	834	1,052
R ²	0.04	0.04	0.06	0.04	0.03
Mean DV	0.59	0.57	0.54	0.53	0.53

Note: Local randomization RD estimates using a falsified running variable centered on birth year 1949 (age 18 in 1967, the fake coup year). The analysis uses a ± 5 bandwidth, which covers cohorts 1944–1954 — entirely within the actual control group (completed HS before the 1973 coup). This ensures no contamination from the real treatment cutoff at 1955. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Appendix E: Distributional Analysis — Ideology

This appendix presents supporting distributional figures for ideological self-placement discussed in the main text. The RD estimates themselves are reported in Table 3 in the manuscript, and the full-sample kernel density (Figure 3 in the main text) shows the aggregate rightward shift. Here we show the same comparison restricted to respondents with a clear (non-centrist) ideological placement, together with the share of respondents who decline to place themselves on the ideological scale—a check on whether the rightward shift among placed respondents could instead reflect differential selection into placement.

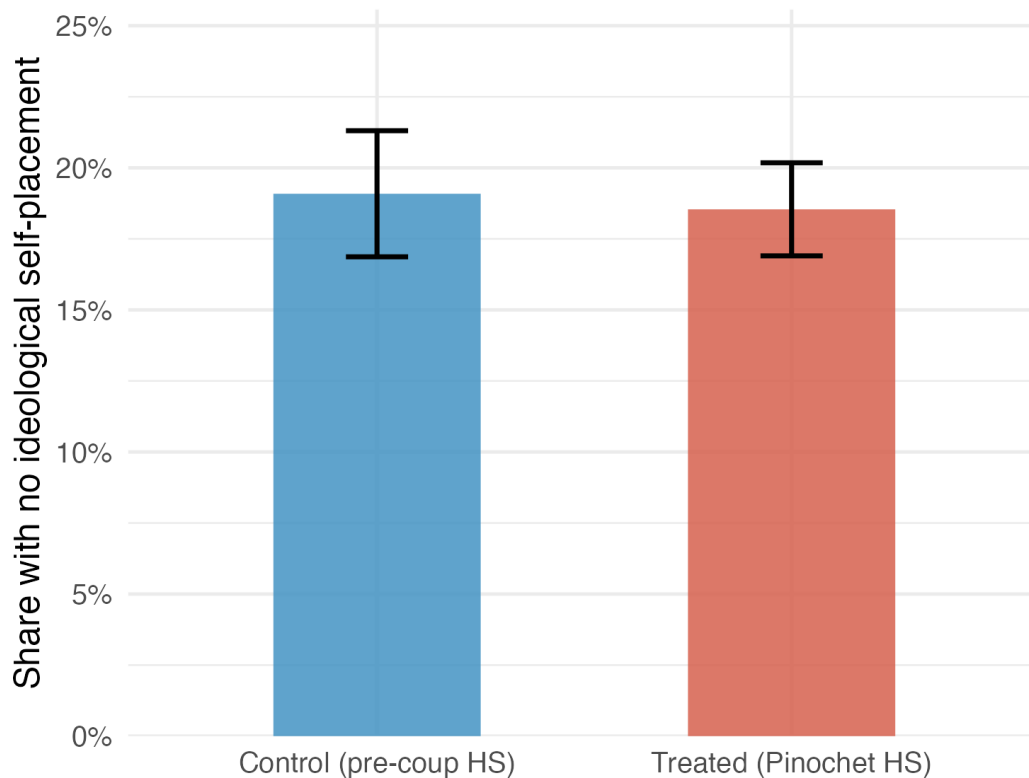
Figure E1: Left-Right Ideology: Left (1–4) vs. Right (7–10) by Treatment Group (BW = ± 10)



5–6 excluded. Dashed lines = group means (1–10 scale). Control (pre-coup HS): mean = 5.17; Treated (Pinochet HS): mean = 5.29.

Note: Overlapping bar chart showing the share of respondents at each value of the left-right scale (1–4 = left, 7–10 = right, so higher values indicate a more right-wing position) for control (blue) and treated (red) groups within a ± 10 birth-year bandwidth. Respondents placing themselves at 5 or 6 are excluded, as these values are typically chosen by respondents with weak or no ideological identity. Dashed coloured vertical lines mark group means on the 1–10 scale: control = 5.17; treated = 5.29 (computed among those with a clear ideological placement). Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006–2009 and 2012–2017. Sample: respondents with at least a completed high school degree.

Figure E2: Share Without Ideological Self-Placement by Treatment Group



; waves 2006, 2007, 2008, 2009, 2012, 2013, 2014, 2015, 2016, 2017. HS or more.

Note: Bar chart showing the share of respondents who explicitly declined to place themselves on the left-right scale (response code 99; code 11 in 2006) for the control (born 1945–1954) and treated (born 1956–1965) groups, within a ± 10 birth-year bandwidth. Respondents with a truly missing ideology response (question not asked or skipped) are excluded from the denominator. Error bars show 95% confidence intervals. The two groups are statistically indistinguishable (control = 19.1%; treated = 18.6%; overlapping 95% confidence intervals), indicating no differential abstention from ideological self-placement. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006–2009 and 2012–2017 (waves 2010 and 2011 did not include the ideology item). Sample: respondents with at least a completed high school degree.

Appendix F: Dosage Robustness

This appendix reports the dosage robustness check discussed in the main text. The analysis replicates the main results excluding the 1954 and 1956 birth cohorts (those at running = ± 1), comparing groups with greater cumulative exposure distance. If the effect reflects a dosage mechanism, estimates should be at least as large as the main results; if it reflects a discrete rupture at the coup itself, estimates should remain similar.

Table F1: Dosage Robustness: RD Estimates Excluding Adjacent Cohorts (1954 and 1956)

	Birth Cohort Range (excl. cohorts 54 & 56)								
	53–57 (1)	52–58 (2)	51–59 (3)	50–60 (4)	49–61 (5)	48–62 (6)	47–63 (7)	46–64 (8)	45–65 (9)
<i>Panel A: Pro-Market Index (additive, 0–1)</i>									
Indoctrination	0.01 (0.02)	-0.02 (0.08)	0.01 (0.05)	0.04 (0.04)	0.06 (0.04)	0.04 (0.03)	0.05* (0.03)	0.05* (0.03)	0.05* (0.02)
Obs.	310	616	897	1,195	1,523	1,846	2,178	2,516	2,804
R ²	0.07	0.07	0.06	0.06	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.05	0.04
Mean DV	0.53	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51	0.51
<i>Panel B: Pro-Market Index (binary, ≥0.5)</i>									
Indoctrination	0.06 (0.04)	0.09 (0.16)	0.08 (0.11)	0.10 (0.08)	0.15** (0.07)	0.13** (0.06)	0.14** (0.06)	0.13** (0.05)	0.11** (0.05)
Obs.	310	616	897	1,195	1,523	1,846	2,178	2,516	2,804
R ²	0.04	0.05	0.04	0.03	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03
Mean DV	0.60	0.56	0.57	0.56	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.56	0.56
<i>Panel C: Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>									
Indoctrination	0.07* (0.04)	0.22 (0.17)	0.11 (0.11)	0.10 (0.09)	0.10 (0.07)	0.09 (0.06)	0.09* (0.05)	0.11** (0.05)	0.12*** (0.05)
Obs.	310	616	897	1,195	1,523	1,846	2,178	2,516	2,804
R ²	0.05	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.66	0.64	0.65	0.64	0.64	0.64	0.64	0.64	0.64
<i>Panel D: Growth vs. Equality</i>									
Indoctrination	0.15*** (0.04)	0.51*** (0.17)	0.37*** (0.12)	0.25** (0.10)	0.17* (0.09)	0.09 (0.09)	0.03 (0.07)	0.04 (0.06)	0.04 (0.06)
Obs.	310	616	897	1,195	1,523	1,846	2,178	2,516	2,804
R ²	0.05	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.36	0.31	0.32	0.32	0.32	0.33	0.33	0.34	0.33
<i>Panel E: Targeting vs. Universalism</i>									
Indoctrination	0.07 (0.06)	0.14 (0.24)	0.07 (0.17)	0.20* (0.12)	0.24** (0.10)	0.21** (0.09)	0.17** (0.07)	0.11* (0.07)	0.10 (0.06)
Obs.	310	616	897	1,195	1,523	1,846	2,178	2,516	2,804
R ²	0.03	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.57	0.53	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.53	0.53	0.53
<i>Panel F: Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>									
Indoctrination	0.01 (0.06)	-0.13 (0.23)	0.14 (0.13)	0.14 (0.12)	0.07 (0.10)	0.10 (0.08)	0.10 (0.08)	0.09 (0.07)	0.04 (0.07)
Obs.	310	616	897	1,195	1,523	1,846	2,178	2,516	2,804
R ²	0.02	0.03	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.52	0.53	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.52	0.51	0.50	0.50

Note: Local randomization RD estimates excluding the 1954 and 1956 birth cohorts (i.e., starting from BW = 2). This tests whether the effect holds for cohorts with greater dosage differences. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year × survey-year level. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

Appendix G: Robustness — Controlling for Gender

This appendix replicates the main results (Table 2 in the main text) adding gender (female indicator) as a control variable. Gender is the only pre-treatment covariate available consistently across survey waves, so this is the broadest covariate-adjusted robustness check we can implement for the full sample.

Table G1: Robustness: Effect of Indoctrination Controlling for Gender

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>Panel A: Pro-Market Index (additive, 0–1)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.03** (0.02)	0.04 (0.05)	0.02 (0.04)	0.02 (0.03)	0.03 (0.03)	0.05* (0.03)	0.04* (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)	0.04** (0.02)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.11	0.07	0.07	0.06	0.06	0.06	0.05	0.05	0.05	0.04
Mean DV	0.53	0.53	0.51	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.51	0.51
<i>Panel B: Pro-Market Index (binary, ≥0.5)</i>										
Indoctrination	0.08*** (0.03)	0.08 (0.08)	0.07 (0.07)	0.08 (0.06)	0.09* (0.05)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.11*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.10*** (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.05	0.03	0.04	0.04	0.03	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03
Mean DV	0.59	0.60	0.57	0.58	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57
<i>Panel C: Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>										
Indoctrination	0.14*** (0.04)	0.18** (0.09)	0.20*** (0.06)	0.16*** (0.05)	0.14*** (0.05)	0.14*** (0.04)	0.13*** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.04)	0.13*** (0.04)	0.14*** (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.05	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.67	0.67	0.65	0.65	0.64	0.65	0.64	0.65	0.64	0.64
<i>Panel D: Growth vs. Equality</i>										
Indoctrination	0.08 (0.05)	0.00 (0.12)	0.17* (0.09)	0.19** (0.08)	0.16** (0.06)	0.13** (0.06)	0.09 (0.06)	0.06 (0.05)	0.06 (0.05)	0.06 (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.05	0.05	0.03	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.30	0.33	0.31	0.31	0.32	0.32	0.33	0.33	0.33	0.33
<i>Panel E: Targeting vs. Universalism</i>										
Indoctrination	0.10*** (0.04)	0.11 (0.11)	0.12* (0.07)	0.10 (0.07)	0.16** (0.06)	0.18*** (0.06)	0.17*** (0.05)	0.15*** (0.05)	0.12** (0.05)	0.10** (0.04)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.03	0.02	0.01	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01
Mean DV	0.56	0.56	0.54	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.53
<i>Panel F: Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>										
Indoctrination	0.06** (0.03)	0.08 (0.11)	0.00 (0.12)	0.09 (0.09)	0.10 (0.08)	0.07 (0.07)	0.09 (0.06)	0.09 (0.06)	0.09 (0.06)	0.05 (0.05)
Obs.	313	623	929	1,210	1,508	1,836	2,159	2,491	2,829	3,117
R ²	0.06	0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.02	0.02
Mean DV	0.53	0.53	0.53	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.50	0.50

Note: Local randomization RD estimates replicating the main results (Table 2) with gender (female indicator) added as a control variable. All other specifications identical to the main analysis. Standard errors clustered at the birth-year × survey-year level. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. Source: Bicentenario Survey, waves 2006, 2009, and 2011–2017. * $p < .10$; ** $p < .05$; *** $p < .01$.

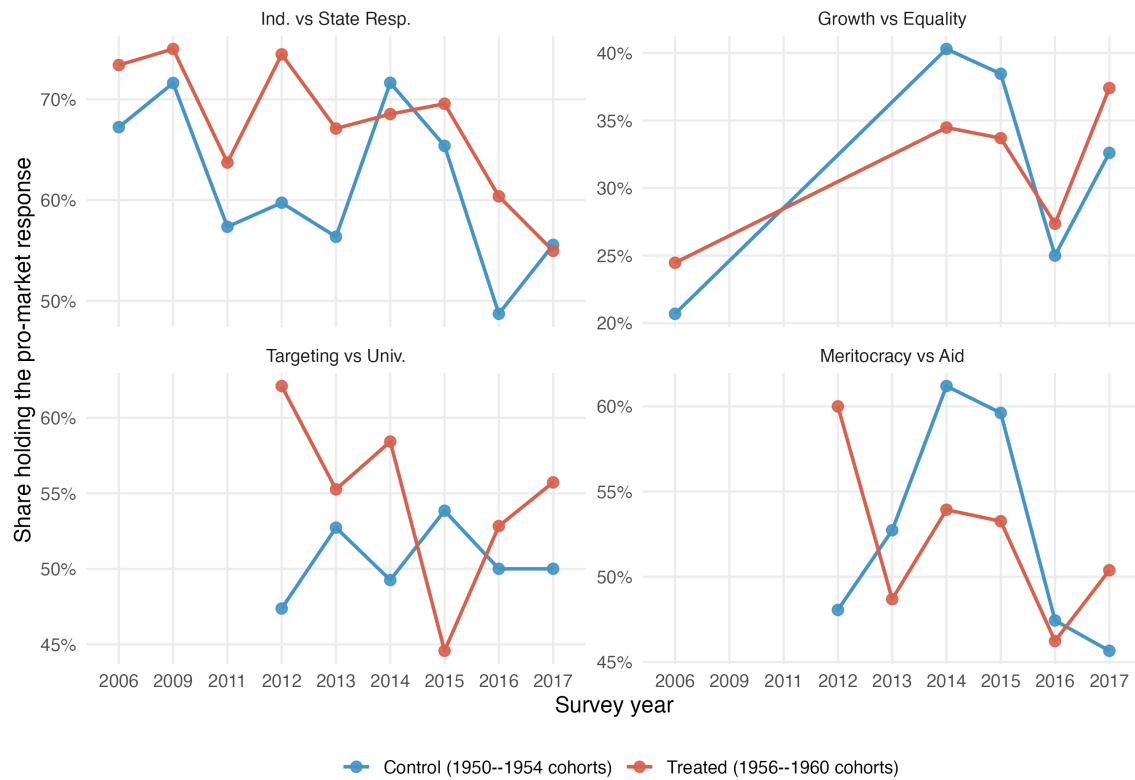
Appendix H: Survey-Wave and Age-at-Survey Diagnostics

A standard concern with survey data pooled across multiple rounds is the age-period-cohort (APC) problem. In our setting, however, two of these three components are not free. *Cohort* is the treatment itself — it identifies who was exposed to the Pinochet curriculum and cannot be differenced away or treated as a nuisance without discarding the treatment variation. *Survey wave* (period) is already absorbed by wave fixed effects included in every specification. The only APC component that could confound our estimates is *age at interview*: because treated cohorts were born after 1955, they are mechanically younger when surveyed. If pro-market attitudes declined with age, younger respondents would appear more pro-market regardless of their schooling.

Figure H3 addresses the age-at-interview concern. We estimate the residual age profile of pro-market responses conditional on treatment status and wave fixed effects, using two-year age bins. The profiles are flat to increasing on most dimensions: aging does not reduce pro-market attitudes — if anything, it slightly increases them. Since treated cohorts are *younger* at interview, life-cycle predicts they should be *less* pro-market — so finding they are *more* pro-market means the treatment effect is conservatively estimated.

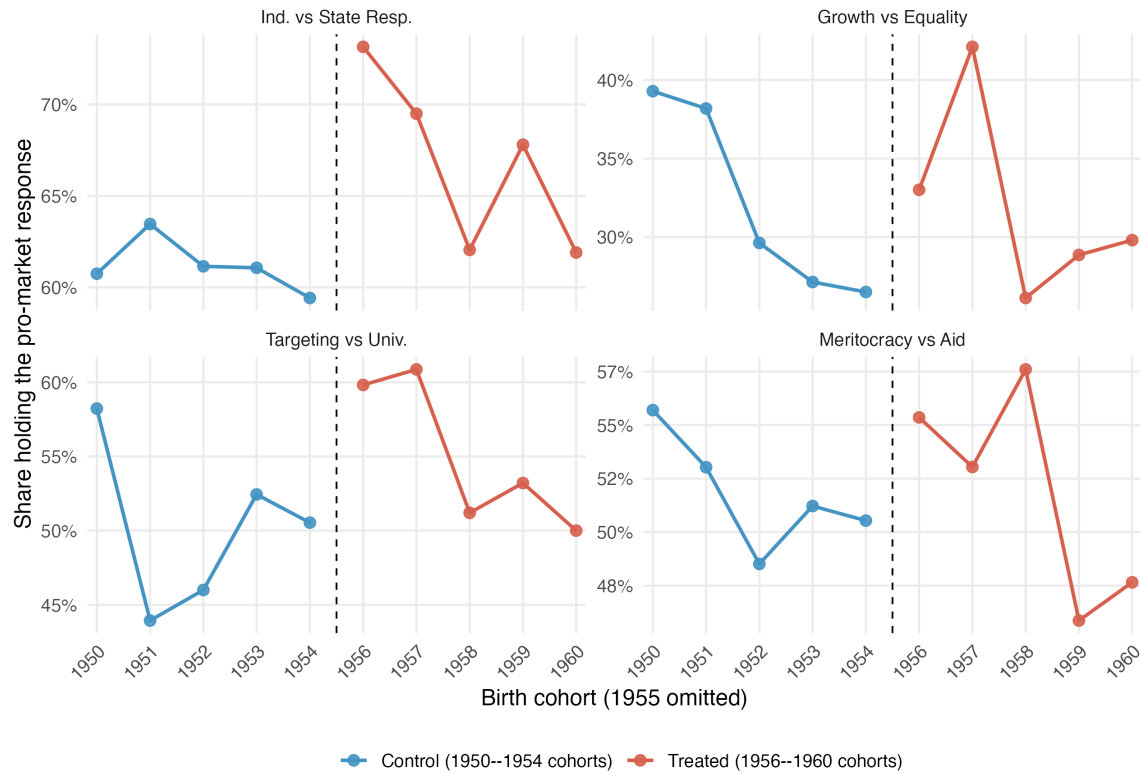
Figures H1 and H2 are provided for additional transparency. Figure [H1](#) plots the raw means by survey wave for treated and control cohorts within $BW = 5$. Not all items were fielded in every wave (see Table [1](#) in the main text), so some panels have fewer data points; both groups' attitudes vary across rounds as expected, and the treated-control gap is visible in the waves where each item was available. Figure [H2](#) shows the same outcomes by actual birth cohort, making the raw treatment contrast transparent.

Figure H1: Main Outcomes by Survey Wave and Treatment Group (BW = ± 5)



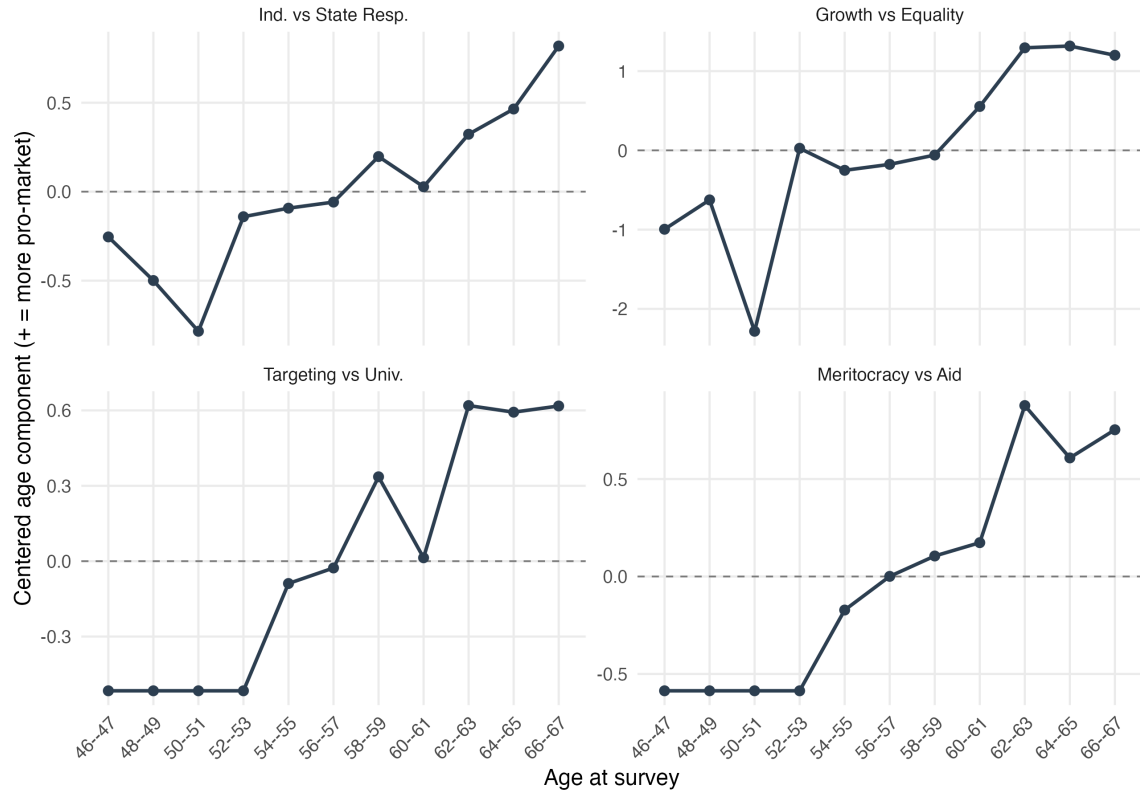
Note: Mean of each binary pro-market outcome by survey wave for control cohorts (1950–1954, blue) and treated cohorts (1956–1960, red), within the preferred BW = 5 window. Each outcome is coded so that higher values indicate the pro-market response. Not all items were fielded in every wave: Individual Responsibility is available in all nine waves; Growth from 2006 and again from 2014; Targeting and Meritocracy from 2012 onward (see Table 1). Points appear only where an item was fielded. Both groups’ means fluctuate over time, reflecting changes in the broader political and economic environment — this is expected and not a concern. The treated-control gap is present across the waves in which each item is available, showing that the main result is not driven by any single survey round.

Figure H2: Main Outcomes by Actual Birth Cohort (BW = ± 5)



Note: Mean of each binary pro-market outcome by actual birth cohort for control cohorts (1950–1954, blue) and treated cohorts (1956–1960, red), within the preferred BW = 5 window. Each outcome is coded so that higher values indicate the pro-market response: individual over state responsibility, growth over equality, targeting over universalism, and meritocratic effort over state aid. Lines connect the observed cohort means within each group. The omitted 1955 cohort is plotted without an artificial horizontal gap between the two sides. This figure is descriptive: it makes transparent that the discontinuity is defined along the cohort dimension, which in this design is the treatment itself.

Figure H3: Age-at-Survey Decomposition for the Main Outcomes



Note: Mean-centered age-component coefficients from a logistic specification estimated in the BW = 5 sample of high-school completers. Two-year age bins; each model includes the treatment indicator, survey-wave fixed effects, and controls for college attendance and gender. Positive values indicate a greater latent propensity to choose the pro-market response. The profiles are flat to increasing, meaning aging does not reduce pro-market attitudes. Because treated cohorts are younger at interview, this life-cycle direction works *against* the treatment effect, making the main estimates conservative.

Appendix I: Persistence Mechanism Test

PRIVATE HEALTH (ISAPRE) USE

This appendix reports the empirical test of the first persistence mechanism discussed in the main text — whether treated cohorts reinforced their pro-market beliefs by actually using privatized services. Using private health insurance (Isapre) as the intermediate outcome, Panel A estimates the effect of indoctrination on Isapre use, and Panel B estimates the heterogeneous effect

on the additive pro-market index by private-health use. Both panels use the Bicentenario Survey and the same local-randomization RD estimator employed throughout the paper.

Table I1: Mechanism Test: Private Health (Isapre) Use

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>A. Effect of indoctrination on private health (Isapre) use</i>										
Bicentenario	0.10 (0.08)	0.30* (0.16)	0.02 (0.13)	−0.02 (0.11)	−0.03 (0.09)	0.03 (0.08)	0.02 (0.07)	0.04 (0.06)	0.04 (0.06)	0.06 (0.06)
Obs.	154	287	451	568	698	836	982	1,124	1,287	1,402
<i>B. Heterogeneous effect on additive pro-market index by private health use (Bicentenario)</i>										
Isapre users	0.02 (0.09)	−0.07 (0.08)	0.00 (0.07)	−0.03 (0.07)	0.02 (0.06)	0.08 (0.05)	0.05 (0.05)	0.07 (0.05)	0.06 (0.04)	0.06 (0.04)
Obs.	45	88	139	170	214	259	303	350	404	430
Public users	0.02 (0.03)	−0.02 (0.07)	0.03 (0.06)	0.06 (0.06)	0.06 (0.04)	0.03 (0.04)	0.03 (0.04)	0.03 (0.03)	0.03 (0.03)	0.01 (0.03)
Obs.	109	199	312	398	484	577	679	774	883	972

Note: Local-randomization RD estimates (same estimator as main results). Each column is a bandwidth (birth-cohort range around the 1955 cutoff). Standard errors clustered at birth-year $\times$ survey-year in parentheses. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. *Panel A:* outcome is a binary indicator equal to 1 if the respondent (or household, in BC 2014/2016/2017) uses the private health system (Isapre). Source: Bicentenario waves 2006/2014/2016/2017 (P82, CP_15, G12_7, CP16_7). Sample: respondents with at least a completed high school degree; GSE 1–5; harmonized cohort window. All specifications include survey-year fixed effects. *Panel B:* outcome is the additive pro-market index (mean of the four standardized dimensions). Bicentenario main analysis sample, split by private-health use; identifiable only in the four BC waves in which the Isapre indicator is collected. Source: Bicentenario waves 2006, 2014, 2016, 2017.

LABOR UNION PARTICIPATION

This appendix reports the empirical test of the second persistence mechanism discussed in the main text — whether treated cohorts were less likely to participate in labor unions, the counter-socializing organizations most likely to erode pro-market beliefs. Using labor union participation as the intermediate outcome, Panel A estimates the effect of indoctrination on union participation, and Panel B estimates the heterogeneous effect on the additive pro-market index by union participation. Both panels use the 2016 Bicentenario Survey and the same local-randomization RD estimator employed throughout the paper.

Table I2: Mechanism Test: Labor Union Participation — Bicentenario 2016

	Birth Cohort Range									
	54 & 56 (1)	53–57 (2)	52–58 (3)	51–59 (4)	50–60 (5)	49–61 (6)	48–62 (7)	47–63 (8)	46–64 (9)	45–65 (10)
<i>A. Effect of indoctrination on union participation</i>										
Bicentenario	−0.18 (0.12)	−0.15 (0.32)	−0.24 (0.19)	−0.30* (0.17)	−0.24* (0.14)	−0.30** (0.13)	−0.32*** (0.12)	−0.24** (0.11)	−0.17 (0.10)	−0.12 (0.10)
Obs.	53	75	118	151	182	213	253	288	323	350
<i>B. Heterogeneous effect on additive pro-market index by union status (Bicentenario)</i>										
Union members	0.21* (0.10)	0.31 (0.22)	0.40** (0.17)	0.18 (0.15)	0.14 (0.13)	0.09 (0.13)	0.13 (0.12)	0.14 (0.11)	0.09 (0.10)	0.11 (0.10)
Obs.	14	21	30	40	45	52	64	67	77	81
Non-members	−0.05 (0.08)	−0.11 (0.19)	−0.09 (0.12)	−0.04 (0.10)	−0.01 (0.09)	−0.02 (0.08)	−0.03 (0.07)	−0.01 (0.07)	−0.02 (0.06)	−0.02 (0.06)
Obs.	39	54	88	111	137	161	189	221	246	269

Note: Local-randomization RD estimates (same estimator as main results), Bicentenario 2016 survey only. Each column is a bandwidth (birth-cohort range around the 1955 cutoff). Standard errors are HC1 heteroskedasticity-robust; no survey-year fixed effects (single wave). * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. *Panel A*: outcome is a binary indicator equal to 1 if the respondent reports union participation; 0 otherwise. Union participation = active/inactive/past member $\rightarrow$ 1; never $\rightarrow$ 0. Sample: respondents with at least a completed high school degree; harmonized cohort window. Source: Bicentenario Survey 2016. *Panel B*: outcome is the additive pro-market index (mean of the four standardized dimensions). 2016 analysis sample, split by union membership status.

Appendix J: Manipulation (Density) Test of the Running Variable

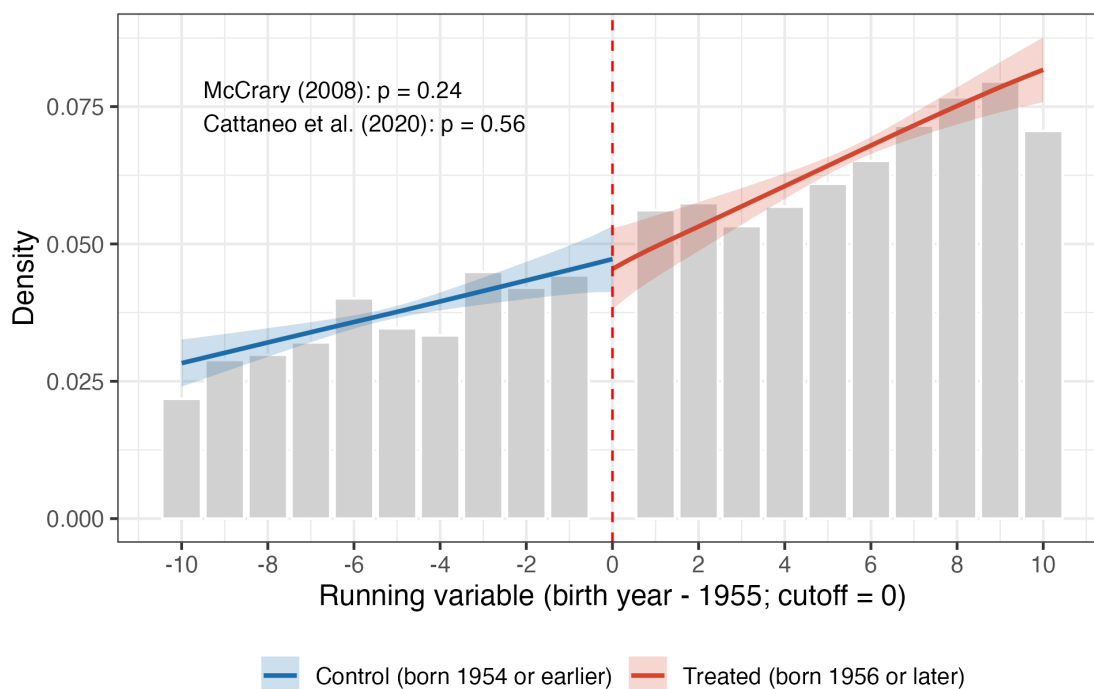
A standard validity check in any RD design is a test for manipulation of the running variable: if units could sort across the threshold, the as-good-as-random assignment of treatment around the cutoff would break down (McCrary 2008; Cattaneo et al. 2024). In our setting the running variable is birth cohort, which respondents cannot choose and have neither the incentive nor the ability to misreport finely enough to cross a fixed 1955 threshold decades after the fact. Manipulation is therefore implausible on substantive grounds, but we report the formal test because reviewers will expect it.

Table J1 reports two complementary density-discontinuity tests, both computed on the main RD estimation sample. The classical McCrary (2008) test yields a log density difference at the cutoff of 0.148 (SE 0.127, $p = 0.24$). The local-polynomial density estimator of Cattaneo et al. (2020) — the modern implementation behind the `rddensity` routine, which adjusts for the repeated values (mass points) induced by a discrete running variable — yields a density difference of 0.006 (robust $p = 0.56$). Neither test rejects the null of no discontinuity in the density at the threshold. The conclusion is unchanged if we add back the excluded 1955 cohort ($p = 0.35$) or drop the high-school restriction and use the full cross-section ($p = 0.91$).

Figure J1 shows the underlying picture. The grey bars trace the empirical share of respondents in each birth cohort; the local-polynomial densities fitted on each side approach the cutoff and meet with overlapping confidence bands, indicating no jump at 1955. The number of respondents rises smoothly across the whole window — a mechanical consequence of surveying living adults decades later, as younger cohorts are better represented in cross-sections fielded in 2006–2017. This monotone gradient is also why the binomial count tests reported by `rddensity` are significant: they compare raw counts on either side and so absorb the trend, whereas the density-discontinuity tests fit that trend separately on each side and test only for a break at the threshold. The latter are the appropriate manipulation tests here, and they show none. Because the running variable

is discrete, these results should be read with the usual caveat that density tests are designed for continuous running variables; the substantive case against manipulation of birth cohort remains the primary argument.

Figure J1: Density of the Running Variable Around the 1955 Cutoff



Note: Grey bars show the empirical share of high-school-completer respondents in each birth cohort within the ± 10 -year window (bin width is one year, so the bar height is a density). Solid lines are local-polynomial density estimates fitted separately on each side of the cutoff, with 95% confidence bands (Cattaneo et al. 2020); the dashed red line marks the 1955 cutoff (running variable = 0), and the 1955 cohort is excluded from the estimation sample. The panel reports p -values for the McCrary (2008) and Cattaneo et al. (2020) density-discontinuity tests. The fitted densities meet at the cutoff with overlapping confidence bands, consistent with no manipulation of the running variable.

Appendix K: Addressing Year of Birth

The running variable in our design is the respondent's birth cohort, which determines exposure to the post-coup curriculum. Like most Chilean opinion surveys, however, the Bicentenario Survey records respondents' *age*, not their *year of birth*: across the nine waves we use, none asks for the

Table J1: Manipulation (density) tests for the running variable

Test	Estimate	Std. Err.	<i>p</i> -value	Bandwidth	Eff. N_-	Eff. N_+
McCrary (2008)	0.148	0.127	0.243	6.49	746	1090
Cattaneo et al. (2020)	0.006	0.010	0.562	10.00	1097	2020

Note: Both tests evaluate the null hypothesis of no discontinuity in the density of the running variable (birth year – 1955) at the cutoff. The McCrary (2008) estimate is the log difference in the density height at the cutoff; the Cattaneo et al. (2020) estimate is the difference in the density level, using a local-polynomial density estimator with jackknife (robust) standard errors and a mass-point adjustment for the discrete running variable. The sample is the main RD estimation sample (high-school completers, GSE 1–5, nine waves, ± 10 birth years, 1955 cohort excluded; $N = 3117$). Neither test rejects the null at conventional levels.

date of birth. We therefore impute the year of birth as (survey year – age). This appendix examines the measurement error this imputation introduces, quantifies its likely magnitude, and explains why its structure makes our estimates conservative rather than spurious.

The imputation is exact whenever a respondent has already had their birthday by the interview date. For respondents interviewed *before* their birthday in a given year, age understates the elapsed years since birth by one, so (survey year – age) overstates the true year of birth by exactly one year. The error is thus one-directional: imputation can only assign a respondent to a birth cohort that is the same as, or one year *later* (younger) than, the truth. How often it errs depends on when in the year the survey is fielded relative to respondents’ birthdays.

Fieldwork timing. Only the 2006 wave records the interview date in its public file. Table [K1](#) reports the distribution of interview months for that wave. Fieldwork is concentrated near mid-year (89% in April–June), which implies that a non-trivial share of respondents — those born in the second half of the year — were interviewed before their birthday and would have their birth year overstated by one. Mid-year fieldwork makes the imputation more error-prone than the late-year fieldwork of some other Chilean surveys (e.g., the CEP barometer, fielded predominantly after July; Argote 2025), so the magnitudes below should be read as an upper bound on the accuracy of our cohort assignment.

Quantifying the error with the World Values Survey. Because neither the Bicentenario nor the CEP records year of birth, we cannot directly measure how many respondents are misclassi-

Table K1: Bicentenario Survey Fieldwork Month (2006 Wave)

Month Group	Freq.	Percent	Cumulative
January–March	4	0.2	0.2
April–June	1,662	89.0	89.2
July–September	201	10.8	99.9
October–December	1	0.1	100.0
Total	1,868	100.0	

Note: Distribution of interview months in the 2006 Bicentenario wave, the only wave whose public file records the interview date. Based on the 1,868 respondents with a non-missing interview month (of 2,042 total). Fieldwork is concentrated near mid-year: imputing year of birth as (survey year – age) is exact for respondents who have already had their birthday by the interview date, and overstates the birth year by one for those who have not.

fied in our own data. We can, however, leverage another survey conducted in Chile that records both pieces of information. The World Values Survey (WVS) contains both age and year of birth (Haerpfer et al. 2022), allowing us to compare the actual year of birth with the imputed version (survey year – age) for a representative Chilean sample. Table K2 cross-tabulates the actual year of birth (rows) against the imputed value (columns) for cohorts born 1953–1957, the window surrounding our 1955 cutoff.

Table K2: Actual vs. Imputed Year of Birth, Chilean Cohorts 1953–1957 (World Values Survey)

Actual YOB \ Imputed YOB	1953	1954	1955	1956	1957	Total
1953	72	51	0	0	0	123
1954	0	56	42	0	0	98
1955	0	0	64	48	0	112
1956	0	0	0	76	48	124
1957	0	0	0	0	62	62
Total	72	107	106	124	110	519

Note: Cross-tabulation of the actual year of birth (rows) against the imputed year of birth (columns), computed as survey year – age, for Chilean respondents born 1953–1957. Source: World Values Survey, Chile (country code 152), pooled waves 1990–2018, which record both age and year of birth. Imputation error is one-directional: every misclassified respondent is assigned a birth year exactly one year later than the truth (an off-diagonal mass only in the upper triangle), because (survey year – age) overstates the birth year for respondents interviewed before their birthday. Overall, 64% of respondents are correctly classified. No genuine control respondent (true YOB ≤ 1954) is imputed into the treated range (YOB ≥ 1956), so the control group cannot be contaminated by treated units.

Three features of Table K2 bear on our design. First, the off-diagonal mass lies entirely in the upper triangle: every misclassified respondent is assigned a birth year exactly one year later than the truth, confirming the one-directional logic above. Overall, about 64% of respondents in this window are correctly classified.

Second, and most importantly, *the control group cannot be contaminated*. A genuine control respondent (true year of birth ≤ 1954) can only be imputed as 1954 (correct) or 1955 (the excluded cohort); no true control is ever imputed into the treated range (≥ 1956). The misclassification therefore cannot manufacture a treatment effect by leaking controls into the treated group. The cohort that does get pulled across is the 1955 cohort: of the respondents *imputed* as 1956 — the boundary treated cohort in our narrowest comparison — about 38% are in fact born in 1955. These are individuals who finished high school in 1973 and so experienced only the final months of the school year under the new regime. Crucially, this is precisely the ambiguous cohort that our design already *excludes* (we drop the 1955 cohort and treat it as a buffer; see the “Treatment” section of the main text). To the extent that imputation nonetheless slips some of them into the treated group, it adds minimally-exposed units to the treated side, which attenuates the estimated effect toward zero.

Third, the remaining error is benign for identification. True 1956 respondents who are imputed as 1957 stay within the treated group, and true 1953 respondents imputed as 1954 stay within the control group; this within-group reshuffling does not affect treatment assignment. Taken together, the structure of the error means that classical measurement error in the running variable here biases our estimates *downward*: the reported effects are best read as a lower bound on the true effect of exposure to the Pinochet curriculum. This is consistent with the density (manipulation) tests in Appendix J, which detect no discontinuity in the cohort density at the cutoff.

Appendix L: Design-Based Inference at the Narrowest Windows

At the narrowest bandwidths ($BW = 1-3$), the local-randomization estimates in Table 2 rest on very few birth-year $\times$ survey-year clusters (as few as 10), so the conventional cluster-robust asymptotic p -values may be unreliable. This appendix reports design-based inference that does not depend on asymptotic approximations: exact randomization inference (RI) at $BW = 1$, where treatment is permuted 2,000 times within survey-year strata, and a restricted (null-imposed) wild-cluster bootstrap (WCB) with Rademacher weights over 999 replications at $BW = 2$ and $BW = 3$.

Individual-vs-state responsibility is the only dimension that remains statistically significant under design-based inference at these narrowest windows; the point estimates for the other outcomes are similar in sign and magnitude to those in Table 2, but design-based p -values at $BW = 1-3$ do not cross conventional significance thresholds given the small number of clusters. These dimensions are credible only at the wider bandwidths, where cluster counts are larger and asymptotic and design-based inference agree more closely.

Table L1: Design-Based Inference at the Narrowest Windows

	Birth Cohort Range		
	54 & 56 (BW = 1, RI)	53–57 (BW = 2, WCB)	52–58 (BW = 3, WCB)
<i>Individual vs. State Responsibility</i>			
Estimate	0.14	0.18	0.20
Clustered p (asymptotic)	0.000	0.049	0.003
Design-based p	0.018	0.094	0.007
Clusters	18	36	54
N	313	621	926
<i>Growth vs. Equality</i>			
Estimate	0.08	0.00	0.17
Clustered p (asymptotic)	0.144	0.999	0.060
Design-based p	0.339	0.999	0.101
Clusters	10	20	30
N	186	351	543
<i>Targeting vs. Universalism</i>			
Estimate	0.10	0.10	0.12
Clustered p (asymptotic)	0.007	0.348	0.105
Design-based p	0.197	0.436	0.152
Clusters	12	24	36
N	205	402	627
<i>Meritocracy vs. Welfare</i>			
Estimate	0.06	0.08	0.01
Clustered p (asymptotic)	0.036	0.493	0.965
Design-based p	0.480	0.557	0.974
Clusters	12	24	36
N	205	402	628

Note: Each panel reports one binary (strong-preference, ≥ 0.5) outcome at the three narrowest birth-cohort windows. *Estimate* is the local-randomization RD treatment effect; *Clustered p* is the conventional two-sided p -value from standard errors clustered at the birth-year $\times$ survey-year level (HC1); *Design-based p* is a two-sided p -value robust to the small number of clusters. The design-based method is randomization inference (RI) at BW = 1 —treatment permuted within survey-year strata over 2,000 draws, the exact local-randomization test— and a restricted (null-imposed) wild-cluster bootstrap (WCB) at BW = 2 and 3 —Rademacher weights at the cluster level over 999 replications. *Clusters* and N are the birth-year $\times$ survey-year cells and observations used for each outcome (non-missing values only). Individual-vs-state responsibility is the only dimension that remains significant under design-based inference at these windows; the others are credible only at the wider bandwidths reported in Table 2.